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The dynamics and mechanics of media framing within Moroccan music and film festivals

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This article examines the mediatization of culture in Moroccan urban society. Drawing on two illustrative examples, namely MFRW (Mawazine Festival Rhythms of the World) and MIFF (Marrakech International film Festival), the article attempts to understand the dynamics and mechanics of media framing in affecting positively and/or negatively music and film festivals in Morocco. While it tries to determine how the interplay between media and art has become integrated into the very fabric of Moroccan social and cultural life, the current study also investigates how the two festivals were framed differently. The results show that being active on the largest media scale can not only help sustain the festival landmark, it can also undermine it. The purpose of this study is to investigate the role played by various media including social media, online newspapers, festival official websites, and cartoons in order to enhance digital festival engagement and to provide event planners with the most important information in the marketing and commercialization of Moroccan arts festivals.

Keywords: Morocco; mediatization of culture; framing; digital; commercialization; arts festivals

Cet article examine la médiatisation de la culture dans la société urbaine marocaine. En s'appuyant sur deux exemples illustratifs, à savoir le MFRW (Mawazine Festival Rhythms of the World) et le MIFF (Marrakech International Film Festival), cet article tente de comprendre la dynamique et la mécanique du cadrage médiatique en affectant positivement et/ou négativement les festivals de musique et de cinéma au Maroc. Tout en essayant de déterminer comment l'interaction entre les médias et l'art s'est intégrée dans le tissu même de la vie sociale et culturelle marocaine, la présente étude examine également comment les deux festivals ont été encadrés différemment. Les résultats obtenus à partir de cette enquête ont montré que le fait d'être actif sur la plus grande échelle médiatique peut non seulement contribuer à soutenir le point de repère du festival, mais aussi le miner. L'objectif de cette étude est d'examiner le rôle joué par diverses formes de médias, y compris les médias sociaux, les journaux en ligne, les sites Web officiels des festivals et les bandes dessinées, afin d'améliorer l'interaction virtuelle des festivals et de fournir aux organisateurs d'événements les informations les plus importantes pour le marketing et la commercialisation des festivals artistiques marocains.

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Mots clés : Maroc; médiatisation de la culture; encadrement; numérique; commercialisation; festivals artistiques

Introduction

To frame is to select some aspects of a perceived reality and make them more salient in a communicating text, in such a way as to promote a particular problem definition, causal interpretation, moral evaluation, and/or treatment recommendation (Entman, 1993a, p. 52).

A frame is a central organizing idea for news content that supplies a context and suggests what the issue is through the use of selection, emphasis, exclusion, and elaboration (Tankard *et al.*, 1991, p. 11).

Nowadays, much of our decision-making and judgments are influenced by the way information (visible and audible) is presented and packaged. Central to this idea is the issue of media framing. What we read, see, and perceive is not the entire truth/reality but rather a version of the reality that contains various (sub) realities/truths and forms of bias, which are veered toward drawing attention to specific issues at the expense of others. To drive this idea home, we try to investigate media hegemony through the use of frames within arts festivals. In particular, we focus on the choice of words/slogans used, what gets covered, and what gets neglected. Drawing on two case studies, Mawazine Festival Rhythms of the World (henceforth MFRW) and Marrakech International Film Festival (henceforth MIFF), this article explores how the dynamics and mechanics of media framing affect positively and/or negatively music and film festivals in Morocco. The purpose is to provide insights into how the dynamics of media framing help promote arts festivals and enhance digital festival engagement in “society post COVID-19” (Davies, 2021). Our concern is to account for the role and significance of media forms such as social media, online newspapers, festival official websites, and cartoons in promoting and branding cultural industries in Morocco. Firstly, we discuss how the above media forms have impacted the music and film festival legitimacy and reputation in both positive and negative ways. Secondly, we locate the concept of media dynamics within the cultural industries/studies, particularly with regard to the concept of “framing” in the field of arts festivals.

Literature review

In recent years, specifically since 1999, there has been a proliferation of festivals under King Mohammed VI. Even after the national and international tense climate that marked the terrorist attacks on the United States in 2001 and Morocco in 2003, festivals have continued their proliferation across the country. Moreover, the series of uprisings that swept across the MENA (Middle East and North Africa) region years later and the rapid drafting of the 2011 constitution have not altered the cultural politics of the state. Ever since, the most important and colossal impacts exerted by arts festivals on the economic, social, and political sectors have brought into play the *raison d'être* of arts festivals. As a result of these circumstances, Morocco has undertaken significant measures to launch different plans ranging from agriculture, information technology, renewable energy, sustainable development, trade, and tourism to culture, geared toward regenerating and revitalizing the state, and most importantly turning toward a “transition to democracy” (Darif, 2010), or what MFAACME (2021)

has recently described as a “controlled programme of democratization.” Projects such as The Green Plan of Morocco, the *Plan Azur*, the e-Government Plan, the RAWAJ Plan, the Halieutis Plan, the Solar Plan, and The National Initiative for Human Development Plan, to name a few, fit within this vision (*transitionality*) of the “new Morocco,” which marked: 1) a break with the “old Morocco”/traditional state during the reign of Hassan II; and 2) a response to the “new type of urban politics” (Frank & Roth, 2000). There is not enough space to go into detail comparing the two reigns (old and new Morocco), as the focus of this article is to address the role of different urban, national, and global processes since 1999.

Festivals, therefore, appear to be in response to the new King and his (or the state’s) ideas about what Morocco means and how culture (specifically arts festivals) represents this vision. In his article “Festivalization of Urban Space in Morocco,” Taib Belghazi (2006) provides illuminating insights with respect to this point. Belghazi claims that urban festivals are effective tools and boosters (frames) for social, economic, and cultural development. They basically fulfil three functions. First, festivals are seen as instrumental for economic growth and development. Second, festivals are useful for upholding dominant cultural and political values, and a third perspective views festivals as important for the development of culture.

Evidently, the move toward liberalizing the country and meanwhile consolidating a spirit of openness to the rest of the world through culture has been central to the concerns of Mohammed VI and the monarchy’s cultural strategy. In his speech delivered on Tuesday 30 July 2004, on the occasion of Throne Day, the new monarch articulated the pivotal role of culture:

I am keen to ensure culture receives all the attention it deserves. Not only is it the bedrock of cohesion within the nation, but it also reflects our identity as well as our traditional values. Since Morocco boasts a rich identity built around a variety of specific linguistic and ethnic features, and given our country’s outstanding cultural and artistic heritage, the cultural sector should seek to illustrate this diversity and to encourage all forms of creativity, be it in connection with our time-honoured heritage or with contemporary trends, thereby reflecting a harmonious blend between traditional values and modern creativity. (King Mohammed VI, 2004, as cited in MFAACME, 2021)

There is no doubt that investing in culture is a strategic concern for Morocco (as a state and society). The great focus that has been directed in recent years concerning the considerable growth in the number of music festivals, for example MFRW, or film festivals, such as MIFF and many more, proves how this market is remarkable in its size, breadth, and longevity as well as showing the significant social, cultural, and aesthetic roles the festivals play. Festivals, especially music and film ones, have become important leisure and tourist sites at the local, regional, national, and international level. However, there remains a dearth of contemporary academic research that specifically addresses the role and importance of media frames (dynamics) in promoting Moroccan music and film festivals. For this purpose, the specifics and the ramifications of media framing within the music and film festival market and how altogether it contributes to “the making of Morocco” in the light of the current social and political changes will be critically interrogated. During the course of our analysis of the media frames, we will be inspired by framing theory (Bateson, 1972; Goffman, 1974; Ryan, 1991) in an attempt to understand the implications and interactions of media dynamics in relation to the culture of festivalization in Morocco. This study will attempt to deconstruct how individuals, according to Goffman (1974), interpret data from two angles/frameworks: natural and

social. Goffman's underlying assumption is that individuals are capable users of these frameworks on a day-to-day basis.

Moreover, the study draws on the work of Michel Foucault and Stuart Hall in order to have a deeper understanding of the media–festival nexus. Following Foucauldian thinking, it can be argued that media framing falls within the realms of discourse and representation. In this respect, discursive representations are “the embodying of concepts, ideas and emotions in a symbolic form which can be transmitted and meaningfully interpreted” (Hall, 1997, p. 10). In this sense, media framing, serves hegemonic purposes, among other things, as it moves from selection to salience. In the context of arts festivals, framing involves selections of “some aspects of a perceived reality and mak[ing] them more salient in a communicating text” (Entman, 1993, p. 52). This can be observed in the analysis of forms of media including social media, online newspapers, festival official websites, and cartoons. A case in point is the “*Makhzen* frame” in cartoons which guides and grounds our interpretation of the ways in which media representation makes use of festivals as sorts of “teats” that are meant to feed and calm people, to render them docile and to distract them from social, economic, and everyday crises. This reminds us of the link that Michel Foucault (1980) drew between power and social institutions (in our case, arts festivals) and the effect that this interaction has on people and how the latter, in return, reaffirm and nourish this relation:

Power must be analyzed as something which circulates, or rather as something which only functions in the form of a chain. It is never localized here or there, never in anybody's hands, never appropriated as a commodity or piece of wealth. Power is employed and exercised through a net-like organization. And not only do individuals circulate between its threads; they are always in the position of simultaneously and exercising this power. They are not only its inert or consenting target; they are always also the elements of its articulation. In other words, individuals are the vehicles of power, not its points of application. (Foucault, 1980, p. 98)

Foucault's insight is very helpful in understanding the complex dynamics of framing and power network in Morocco; partly between the individual and the social institutions, and partly between the state system and all other components of society. This positions festivals within a “wider context of power structures” (O'Brien & Chalip, 2007, p. 6, as cited in Reese, 2007). In this regard, we can take the concept of “vehicles of power” even further and apply it to the institution of festivals. When festivals are organized, there is a whole ideological setup which runs underneath through the “process of symbol interiorization,” an idea that Aomar Boum (2012) has discussed in his *Festivalizing Dissent in Morocco*. Hence, cartoons among other media forms are ideologically instrumentalized and framed through the mechanics of humor as instances of *tanfiss 'āni dāt* (a moment of self-relief). Such cartoons speak on behalf of the people, especially the anti-festivals, but what is next? What change do these media frames bring? The idea of *tanafus* gives the reader a moment of ‘breath’ and *tasliya* (entertainment), but not necessarily a chance to change the situation (Cooke, 2007, p. 72, as cited in Moreno, 2017). Consequently, what framing does is merely the reproduction and perpetuation of the status quo. It is interesting to see how the dynamics and mechanics of media framing construct reality while at the same time operating as a set of interpretive packages that give meaning (Gamson & Modigliani, 1989; B. Scheufele, 2006).

Therefore, it is logical that if arts festivals are mediatized/framed negatively, there is little chance of the festival promoting itself and succeeding. Critical scholars such as Reese (2007) and Trengove *et al.* (2011) have argued that the impact of effective online

marketing strategies of artistic events affects the communication between the performers and their audience. This study was designed to this end, examining the interplay between media framing and art, on the one hand, and addressing the various impacts (locally and globally) of media framing on the festival brand name and image transfer, on the other.

Historical and theoretical background

As it is the case with many countries around the world, Morocco is known for its prominent and numerous cultural festivals, which have been signaled so far by their exponential growth nationwide ranging from local traditional *moussems* (feasts) to international high-tech sophisticated mega-events. There are almost no precise records about the number of festivals across the country. One of the reasons that explain this shortage of information is the complexity of the situation, whereby every now and then a festival disappears or gives way to another one to emerge. Indeed, festivals, as Tjora (2016) asserted, have had a “phenomenal growth in most parts of the world for a considerable time,” while they “are increasingly embracing a wider range of cultural events.”

Regarding music festivals, needless to say, at least in the Moroccan context, music shapes our lives and landscapes, both private and public, as it is present everywhere (Kong, 1995; Middleton, 1990; Reese *et al.*, 2001), be it at home, at work, in supermarkets/malls, on the street, or while driving. Music is an important constituent and represents an integral part of Moroccan cultural heritage. There is a wide spectrum of music genres: *Chaabi*, *Malhoun*, *Andaloussi*, *Gnawa*, Classic, *Rifi*, *Soussi*, *Berber*. . . to name a few. Recently, and since the ascent to the throne of King Mohamed VI, Morocco has witnessed a surge of festivals. These cultural ephemera have experienced a rapid change and evolution, marking a break from the past plain-themed, organizational, social, political, and cultural planned event. Importantly, the move from the actual to the virtual (caused recently by the COVID-19 pandemic crisis) in the marketing and commercialization of arts festivals has impacted the overall conceptual framing of culture, not only in Morocco, but in many parts of the world.

In order to understand the underpinnings of framing and the paradigmatic shift that reshaped the intertwined relation between the media and these cultural forms, it would be interesting at this juncture to map out the early dynamics and mechanics of visual framing in the Moroccan context. At the historical level, the early dynamics of visual framing in Morocco went back to the nineteenth century. The Moroccan film critic Moumen Smihi argues that “the first cinematic images [of Moroccans] are those perpetuated by colonialism” (cited in Oudadene, 2013). In fact, the media frame representations of Morocco and Moroccans started early with the Lumiere brothers: Auguste Marie Louis Nicolas Lumière and Louis Jean Lumière’s (1897) *Le Chevrier Marocain/The Moroccan Goatherd*. The movie paved the way for the film industry in Morocco. In addition, in that it had a “civilizing mission” as well as “legitimizing colonialism,” as Ossman (1994, p. 117) contended, “the aim was to give life to the photographs, like those used in advertising that created the dominant colonial images and stereotypes.”

Also, at the root of framing the Moroccan urban/city festival lies a story that went a long way with the mobilization of rural/local feasts as so-called *moussems* by the Moroccan state. While these rites are sites of traditional and seasonal “festivity with an ontological nature, related to agricultural cycles and religious events” (Xie *et al.*, 2017, p. 4), and moments for celebrating specific dates and periods which were considered as

milestones for the local culture, they are, on the other side, thresholds whereby certain frames/processes are constructed. Indeed, the process of framing that has accompanied these traditional events often performed functions similarly to their modern urban counterparts, but on a different scale (Yin, 2018). In this respect, the correlation of frames (be it cultural, social, political, or economic) between the past and current spectacles/events offers a good understanding of the dynamics and mechanics of framing.

Traditional feasts and festivals constitute, symbolically, a renewal of the past in the present, a way of recalling the origins – whether mythical or historical – of a community of men [*sic*]; they are occasions when cultural and national identity can be reasserted and feelings of self-awareness and participation in common experiences reaffirmed ... Feasts played an important role in the past and nowadays there is a new interest in their sociocultural function as the quest for self-identity and self-assertion unfolds within modern societies. (Metraux, 1976, p. 7, Delanty & Sassateli, 2011)

In considering this shifting process, from past to present, i.e., after these traditional festivities have developed in response to industrialization, technological innovation, urbanization, and modes of consumption and production, they have been framed through the state lens. Building on this, we argue that *moussems* have been instrumentalized, patronized, and framed to serve the interests of the state. Reysoo (1988) argued that *moussems* have a complex nature with multi-vocal significance. They are deeply rooted in Moroccan culture. They constitute a great importance for many Moroccans from different walks of life, backgrounds, and social affiliations.

Interestingly, in order to begin to comprehend the culture of festivalization in Morocco on the one hand, and the dynamics of framing on the other, we have first to distinguish between the two concepts: *moussems* and festivals. In fact, there is a linguistic and cultural distinction between the understanding and the use of the word “festival” and *mousssem* in Morocco. The term “festival” as Falassi (1987) highlighted is etymologically derived from the Latin words *festa* and *feriare*, which emphasize the features of public merriment, abstinence from work, and religious worship. In their turn, Getz and Page (2016, p. 67) defined festival as “a sacred or profane time of celebration, marked by special observances.” The term *mousssem*, on the other hand, refers to the festive conduct which is mainly directed at several purposes. First, celebrating the harvest, which signals the end of the agricultural season. Second, for religious gratification, such as that of honoring saints in order to obtain their blessings and benedictions. While this concept is deeply rooted in Arab and Moroccan culture, “festival” on the other hand is a newly imported concept.

Therefore, it follows that the early underpinnings of cultural framing can be detected through the organization of *moussems*. This can be seen in the decorations that take place during museum days. In this respect, Reysoo (1988, p. 137) gave a minute description: “the *mousssem* ground and the sanctuary are decorated with the Moroccan flag. The flag is found in every corner of the *mousssem*. It is respected and inviolable.” In addition to these decorations, the *mousssem* site is ornamented with banners and slogans such as: *Allah* (God), *Al Watan* (Homeland), *Al Malik* (The King), along with the presence of official delegation (local governors) and other representatives of the *Makhzen*, and state power such as the Royal Armed Forces and the Royal Gendarmerie. Such frames yield a discourse of power (between the ruler and ruled) and function as a symbol that “arouse[s] such deep attachment” and exerts a strong sense of nationalism (Tjora, 2016).

Furthermore, festivals and *moussems* have a constructive role and a significant influence on Moroccan public attitudes. Indeed, through the *moussem* frame, and more specifically “schemata of interpretation,” Moroccans are able “to locate, perceive, identify, and label” their *Tamaghrabit*/Moroccanity (Goffman, 1974, p. 21). In this regard, Deborah Kapchan (2013, p. 471) pointed out that festivals in Morocco have been at the “center of moral, political, religious scrutiny” (Tiegreen & Newman, 2008, p. 471). Surveys such as that conducted by Westermarck and Malinowski (1968) have shown that the culture of festivalization in Morocco has already been subject to different types of framing. In the case of *moussems*, and more exactly the power of *baraka* (sainthood), there is a whole cultural, anthropological, and religious frame dynamic. When a saint dies, he leaves behind him some sort of magical power that is handed over and transferred to the *muqqaddem* (caretaker) of the shrine or his descendants. Later, the saint’s *baraka* turns into a subject matter for the *mouridine* (*moussem* followers), who come seeking it, acquiring it, and sometimes even ascribing it to themselves. The dynamics of framing make *baraka* not only ascribed to individuals/human beings (saints), but to objects, animals, sites, and certain sorts of rituals which can be possessed of *baraka* too. From this viewpoint, we come to the understanding that the framing of *baraka* has rendered it a true generator and an effective “vehicle of power,” which controls the mechanisms of agency and relations of force inside and outside the institution of the *moussem*. For a deeper understanding of the complex dynamics of power, henceforth dynamics of framing, Foucault again comes up with the concept of “governmentality” (O’Brien & Chalip, 2007, p. 108) and “postulates of thought” (Foucault, 1996, pp. 423–424). In fact, Foucault has articulated the controversy surrounding the question of power by directing attention to the fact that modern governments: a) gain control (governmentality) over their populations “by which, in our culture, human beings are made subjects” (Foucault, 1982, p. 221); and b) by means of certain practices (*postulates of thought*) that on the surface appear “normal” but serve as rationales for the aims of government (Foucault, 1991, p. 102). Building on this, we argue that the institution of *moussems* through “the dynamics of framing” endorses discourses of governmentality through an assemblage of complex practices “which include acts of purification, processions, prayers, spiritual retreats, offerings, sacrifices and requests that the faithful pilgrim audiences address to God through the intermediary of the saint” (Nabti, 2010, p. 7). Meanwhile, the institution establishes and reinforces discourses of normalization, whereby certain things (the practices and rituals of *baraka*, for instance) are considered to be true and circulated ideologically as rationalities by working subtly through “camouflaging its constructed nature, hiding its historical and social roots, and appearing to be natural and commonsensical” (Reese, 2010, p. 2 20).

Hence, the dynamics of framing that are “acted out” in contemporary Moroccan arts festivals is not a novel idea. From this point, it can be argued that media framing of arts festivals has already started with various types of traditional cultural performances, among which, remarkably, *moussems*. Taken together, these facts support the notion that:

for the Moroccan state, [...] the festivalization of arts and culture has been a key method of managing dissent, blunting the force of social movements and sanding the political edges off of new forms of cultural expression – all while polishing an image of Morocco as liberal and fun-loving for outside consumption. (Boum, 2012, p. 25)

Likewise, more evidence of the culture of visual framing in Morocco comes from film festivals, but prior to that from the cinema industry. Indeed, the creation of the CCM:

Centre Cinématographique Marocain (Moroccan Center for Cinematography) in 1944, the GIC: Groupement de l'Industrie Cinématographique (Industrial Group for Cinematography), along with the SDC: Service du Cinéma (Service for Cinema) in 1942 boosted and framed the film industry in Morocco. According to Carter (2009), the CCM, which later on took the lead in the Moroccan cinema industry, was a prototype of the French CNC (National Cinema Center), a “product of the colonial period.” This marked a turning point in the industry of cinema in Morocco and served as the groundwork for most Maghrebi men and women directors to work hard and prove themselves as real competitors to their Western counterparts.

After independence, and since 1980, the number of Moroccan feature film productions has increased considerably. Indeed, filmmaking in Morocco gained its support from the *Makhzen*, the security/power apparatus, and ruling political and economic elites (Oudadene, 2013). This view is supported by Roy Armes (2009), who noted that “from the start, filmmaking in the Maghreb was dependent on state support, and its history is, in part, a history of successive state structures fostering and controlling production” (as cited in MFAACME, 2021, p. 5). Under such circumstances, Moroccan filmmaking has been framed to suit the *Makhzen spirit* (Dwyer, 2002). Unlike foreign filmmakers shooting in Morocco, Moroccan filmmakers, on the other hand, have to be cautious with the type of the film they intend to produce, with what to film, what to include, what to exclude, how the story of the film touches upon the idea of the *Makhzen spirit*: does the filmmaker criticize or support it? Hence, the selection process under the *Makhzen frame* has not given filmmakers much room for self-expression. In addition, the framing of filmmaking in the Moroccan context has also been influenced by multiple factors including the filmmakers’ affiliation, ideology, personal interests, and, at a macro level, by the social, economic, cultural, and political environment and other changing conditions.

Admittedly, the field of the music and cinema industry in Morocco has been remapped and quite remarkably been tied to different modes of control. Indeed, media discourse enfolds and unfolds the culture of festivalization in Morocco and has generated heated debates and even controversial views, especially following the series of uprisings that rocked the MENA region in 2011. Media depictions of Moroccan festivals have stirred polemical divergence among the pro-festivals and anti-festivals, which probably rendered the understanding of “the politics of festivity” (Morgan, 2014, p. 243) in Morocco a daunting task. Perhaps the most distinguishing point of departure for this is the description given by Morocco and Ruchti (2011) on the different changes that modern societies go through in many fields of culture. Fornäs argues then that media-tization impacts our life in a number of ways, starting from “reading, the book industry and the school, listening and the music industry, the theatre, film and visual culture in both fine arts and popular culture” (Morocco & Ruchti, 2011, p. 5, author’s translation).

In this sense, the aforementioned argumentation serves as the ground on which the interplays between media and art occur, and that this ground allows a further understanding of the culture of festivalization in the Moroccan milieu. These interactions are further energized when “we tend to think of cultural forms as whole and coherent: either wholly corrupt or wholly authentic. Whereas, they are deeply contradictory; they play on contradictions, especially when they function in the domain of the popular” (Hall, 1981, p. 233). So, it becomes even more problematic when the media galvanize the cultural forms (arts festivals) and are engaged in discourses that tend to undervalue or to amplify their image. However, if the festive conduct is immunized against such media practices

in the way that, for instance, a festival goer is not easily manipulated by what comes in a newspaper article or a TV program, then the festival goer will act independently whatever the restrictions, drivers, or frames.

It is sufficient to mention here, therefore, that arts festivals/events act as mirrors of the host city and echo its population's needs, thoughts, and feelings. In fact, events are considered to be "effective media vehicles through which hosts promote their cities' assets to a watching world" (McGillivray & Jones, 2013a, p. 99). On another level, event publicity has been identified and discussed as potentially counterproductive from the dominant perspective (D. A. Scheufele, 1999; O'Brien & Chalip, 2007). By pinpointing the implications of media dynamics in relation to the culture of festivalization in Morocco, we aspire to arrest the attempts where promoting music and film festivals, through, for instance, the creation of an effective 'soft power' (Savage, 2015) in the form of social media, a TV channel/radio, or a magazine is capable of influencing public opinion and the event organizers and thus can communicate a dominant narrative to officially represent the hosting society and influence community agendas (McGillivray & Jones, 2013a; O'Brien & Chalip, 2007; Price, 2008).

However, while media dynamics, in this sense, can make festivals a success (i.e., promoting the city image or the festival landmark), there can sometimes be a mismatch between the event and the media, especially since our societal habits have changed as the reception and processing of information have been affected by the act of framing. Such a mismatch bestows a process that may alter the active role of the media within the festival market, creating, as it follows, complex media roles that are set against complex "competing agendas" (Quinn, 2010) and frames. In fact, the way media frame the culture of festivalization is contentious and very problematic. As Van Gorp, 2007, p. 52) argued, "to frame is to select some aspects of a perceived reality and make them more salient [...] in such a way as to promote a particular problem definition." This brings a discussion about the extent to which framing theory can help understand and uncover the hidden motifs and the underlying role of the media as a potential contributor to the way in which an audience will make sense of information and relate it to reality (Quinn, 2005).

Theoretically, Tjora (2016, p. 3) argued, in this sense, that framing can refer "to the frame of thought that an individual evokes to make sense of a given situation"; in our case, it is the media framing of arts festivals. Indeed, a conceptual model of framing and its sub-processes was developed by D. A. Scheufele (1999) that comprises five modes. The "frame-building," which indicates how communicators choose specific frames for communication and how these might be transferred to journalists. The "frame-setting," which shows how a journalist's framing of an issue influences media consumers' frames of thought. The "individual-level effects-of framing," or how frames of thought might influence subsequent behavior or attitudes on an individual level. Finally, the "journalist-as-audience," or how individual effects loop back to affect the initial frame-building process (Tjora, 2016).

To further investigate and understand the role played by media dynamics, Van Gorp (2007) argued that there are four key elements, namely: 1) schemata; 2) frame packages; 3) framing devices; and 4) reasoning devices that are important in analyzing frames. In her work *A Framing Analysis of Weblogs and Online Newspapers*, Janssen (2010) gave a detailed description of these elements. The first element is schemata, those mentally stored clusters of ideas that individuals use to process. The second element is the frame package, which is a cluster of logically organized devices that function as an identity kit.

The latter consists of the framing devices and reasoning devices. In this regard, “frames are organizing principles that are socially shared and persistent over time, that work symbolically to meaningfully structure the social world” (Reese, 2007, p. 151). Indeed, frames play a role in at least four locations of the communication process (Entman, 1993). These locations are communicators, text, receiver, and culture. Communicators (authors of texts) make framing judgments and apply frames according to their own belief systems. The text contains the actual frames. The receiver of the message (the reader) either perceives or does not perceive the applied frames. Finally, culture is described as “the stock of commonly invoked frames [...], culture might be defined as the empirically demonstrable set of common frames exhibited in the discourse and thinking of most people in a social grouping” (Entman, 1993, p. 53). According to this categorization, Janssen argued that frame analysis takes place within the fourth location: culture. Part of this culture, media research in particular, tries to understand this inter-relation to explain it to other members of the same culture, the public.

Again, Van Gorp (2007) pointed out that communicator, text, receiver, and culture are not only to be found in different locations but on different levels as well. He asserted that framing involves the interplay that occurs between the textual level (frames applied in the media), the cognitive level (schemata among the audience and media makers), the extra media level (the discourse of frame sponsors), and, finally, the stock of frames that is available in a given culture. Mollen and Wilson (2010) claimed that framing through the media refers to the influence of frame sponsors, who can be interest groups, spin doctors, or advertisers who are concerned with directing the perception and the frame selection of journalists according to their interest (Mollen & Wilson, 2010). In this case, journalists, as Janssen further explained, are used as tools to apply the desired frame. Framing by the media means that influences external to the journalist are not taken into account. However, Janssen concluded that it is hard to separate external influences, since journalists are as much subject to cultural shaping as any other individual. The distinction rather refers to the demands that are explicitly requested by frame sponsors. Among others, these demands can be certain expectations of a layout, choice of words, and the placement of an advertisement. To Goffman (1974), people are sensitive to different frames depending on their cultural background. Entman refers to this phenomenon as “cultural stock of frames” (Mollen & Wilson, 2010). In the same line, Entman (1993, p. 52) noted that frames are manifested “by the presence or absence of certain keywords, stock phrases, stereotyped images, sources of information, and sentences that provide thematically reinforcing clusters of facts or judgments.” Together, these studies provide important insights into understanding the conceptual effect and impact of the dynamics of media frames on both the individual and the collective.

Additionally, Oso (2017) asserted that while natural frameworks tend to focus on explaining events in terms of physical causes and laws of nature, social frameworks tend to focus on the role of human agency and social factors in shaping events. Social frameworks recognize that social forces, such as power, culture, and ideology, can have a significant impact on the way events unfold and are interpreted. These frameworks and the frames that they create in our communication greatly influence how data are interpreted, processed, and communicated (Mass Communication Theory (Online), 2017). That said, festivals as a social phenomenon cannot be excluded from the dynamics of these social frameworks. Thus, the present study builds on Entman’s definition of framing (1993) and attempts to investigate such questions as, to what extent do the media dynamics and the processes of framing affect positively or negatively the culture of

festivalization in Morocco at the individual and societal level? How does the media framing of MFRW differ from that of MIFF, and how does this resonate with public opinion? And in what way(s) do authorities make use of the competing media narratives and media frames to sustain the festivals' landmarks? In an effort to understand the dynamics of media framing and to answer the research questions, we hypothesize the following: (1) the media's depictions of Moroccan arts festivals reflect and sustain the socially and politically endorsed views of the pro or anti festival; (2) the increasing mediatization of arts festivals in Morocco contributes to the development of cultural industries; and (3) the media use arts festivals as tools to promote the image of the country.

Importantly, the analysis in this article deploys framing theory for three reasons. Firstly, the concept has been developed to address matters of communication and publicity, including their production and effects (D. A. Scheufele, 1999). Secondly, the framework has been fruitfully employed to guide previous research within the cross-disciplinary fields of leisure and events studies (Morocco & Ruchti, 2011; O'Brien & Chalip, 2007; Robertson *et al.*, 2007); and thirdly, this approach is promising (O'Brien & Chalip, 2007) and serves the nature of the study.

Finally, to guide our study, a number of research objectives are set as follows. First, to examine the role and importance of media dynamics in promoting the culture of festivalization in Morocco. Second, to demonstrate how some media frames have depicted Moroccan music and film festivals. Third, to investigate and disambiguate the widely held perceptions of media shifting dynamics in the Moroccan festival market. Last but not least, to move toward recommendations for festivals.

Data and method

To answer the research questions, the critical examination and discussion of the media forms are framed by a mixed-method approach. This method falls within the scope of pragmatism. The pragmatic view is often linked with mixed-methods research because both accept the idea that qualitative and quantitative methods are indeed compatible (Morgan, 2014; Reyssoo, 1988; Teddlie & Abbas, 2003). In fact, from the pragmatic perspective, the problem is most important, and researchers use all the approaches to understand the problem (Teddlie & Abbas, 2003).

In this respect, a triangulation of qualitative and quantitative methods was employed. First, an online survey questionnaire (using Google Forms) was conducted using random sampling and the snowball technique. The respondents (N = 360) included different people from various cities in Morocco, whose ages vary between 15 and 60. The questionnaire consisted of selected response prompts and open-ended questions. The 360 valid responses obtained were entered into a database and then transferred to the Statistical Program for the Social Sciences (SPSS), which was used for analyzing the data and qualitatively commented on. Second, face-to-face, in-depth interviews were conducted with festival organizers and specialists in the field of the performing arts. The sample consisted of 20 respondents (N = 20): 7 women and 13 men. See Table 1 for more information.

The content analysis documented various prevalent generic frames in the framing of arts festivals in a sample of four Moroccan media types including: a) social media platforms (Facebook, blogs, and YouTube postings); b) online newspapers (*Assabah* and *Le Matin*); c) festival official websites (MFRW and MIFF); and d) cartoons. The

Table 1. Screening interview schedule and details.

Organization/Festival	Interviewee	Sex	Job Title	Interview Date	Interview Location	Interview Duration
CCM/ Center Cinématographique Marocain/Moroccan Center for Cinematography	Nourdine Lamlah	M	Festival Organizer	27 June 2021	Rabat	45 minutes
	Abdelkrim Zahir	M	Film Specialist	15 June 2021	Rabat	1 hour, 5 minutes
Direction of Arts	Moncef Nazehi	M	Film Director	22 June 2021	Casablanca	58 minutes
	Ahmed Chair	M	Event Planner	7 April 2021	Rabat	27 minutes
Faculty of Arts & Human Sciences	Nadia Bayed	F	Festival Manager	7 April 2021	Rabat	35 minutes
	Aberrahim Atri	M	Sociologist	6 July 2021	Rabat	36 minutes
	Jamal Bahmad	M	Media & Cinema Specialist	22 June 2021	Rabat	57 minutes
	Mounia El Jaouhari	F	Festival Goer	5 July 2021	Rabat	39 minutes
	Hicham Ait Mansour	M	Sociologist	31 October 2021	Rabat	46 minutes
L'Boulevard Music Festival	Sara Chtioui	F	Rap Singer	14 September 2019	Casablanca	48 minutes
Marrakech International Film Festival	Amal Ayouch	F	Actress	7 December 2019	Marrakech	17 minutes
Mawazine Festival Rhythms of the World	Soukaina Hashlan	F	Festival Assistant	7 July 2020	Rabat	36 minutes
Ministry of Education	Imad Mellouk	M	Music Teacher	8 July 2021	Temara	45 minutes
	Leila Ouzaqel	F	Music Teacher	9 July 2021	Rabat	49 minutes
Ministry of Youth, Culture and Communication	Abdelilah Dormi	M	Festival Organizer	17 February 2022	Rabat	59 minutes
Moroccan National Office of Tourism	Ahmed Oumaarir	M	Chief Human Resources Officer	17 July 2021	Rabat	57 minutes
Moroccan National TV Channel /2 M	Jad Aberdane	M	Journalist	17 April 2020	Sidi Kacem	43 minutes
Salé International Women's Film Festival	Bouchra Ahrich	F	Actress	11 November 2021	Salé	37 minutes
Save Cinemas in Morocco	Trik Mounim	M	President	7 May 2021	Casablanca	43 minutes
Visa for Music Festival	Brahim El Meznad	M	Festival Director	20 June 2021	Rabat	35 minutes

themes/frames that emerged in the analysis were coded on the basis of the recurrent words, phrases, sentences, opinions, facts, slogans, quotes, and stories and then turned into numbers and percentages.

Media frames were identified as *frame a*, *frame b*, *frame c* . . . , etc. depending on the nature and topic/content of the media form. Each frame contained subframes. For instance, in the case of the multiculturalism, tolerance, and peace-building frame (in the festival official websites of MFRW and MIFF), 40 subframes were drawn which addressed various aspects related to: Peace and Tolerance (N = 13), Art Industry (N = 10), and Morocco Image (N = 17). In total, 40 (= 100%) frames of the total sample (in social media, online newspapers, and festival official websites) and 20 frames (in cartoons) were coded.

Moving forward, the sample selection of the case studies centered on the purpose of the study (Yin, 2018). Table 2 presents the characteristics of the case studies. In the first place, the focus was on the number of years that the festival had been in existence. Next, the degree of popularity of the festivals at the national and international level.

In addition, Table 3 outlines in more detail some key figures and the criteria selection of the sample case studies. The festivals under study needed to receive local and international media coverage. They also needed to be annual events arranged on approximately the same dates each year. Last but not least, we needed to be sure that the festivals take place at a specific period and location each year.

For the purposes of analysis, we selected four sample forms of media communication: online newspapers, social media, festival official websites, and cartoons. First, according to the website www.4imn.com, an international media directory that includes 7000 online newspapers ranked by web popularity in 200 countries, the two newspapers *Le Matin* and *Assabah* (print and online) are ranked among the best-sellers and the most circulated across the country. *Le Matin* (French) is ranked first and *Assabah* (Arabic),

Table 2. Summary characteristics of the case study events.

Event Characteristics	Mawazine Festival Rhythms of the World (MFRW)	Marrakech International Film Festival (MIFF)
<i>Date established</i>	2001	2001
<i>Organization type</i>	Maroc Cultures Association	The Foundation of the International Film Festival of Marrakech
<i>Event type</i>	Music	Film
<i>Setting</i>	Rabat	Marrakech
<i>Venue type</i>	Multiple	Multiple
<i>No. of stages</i>	6	6
<i>No. of artists</i>	1300	2500
<i>Capacity/Attendance</i>	2.75 million spectators	42,000 spectators
<i>Duration</i>	8 days	8 days
<i>Usual month</i>	May/June	November
<i>Activities</i>	Street parade Talk show Villa des Arts	Conversation with Atlas Workshops Cinema for Young Audiences
<i>Direct and Indirect Jobs</i>	5000	1250
<i>Media coverage</i>	600 national and 160 international journalists	370 national and 113 international journalists

Table 3. Festivals' key figures.

MFRW	MIFF
Public attendance ● 2.75 million spectators on average ● 4 million viewers by broadcast concert	Film Screenings ● 88 films ● 31 nationalities represented ● 14 films in competition ● 11 films out of competition ● 6 films favorite movies ● 7 films for visually impaired audiences ● 30 films as tribute to Russian cinema
Stages ● 6 stages	
Days ● 9 days of concerts and shows	
Staff ● +5000 direct and indirect jobs	Public attendance: 42,000 entries, 10,000 public passes ● 550 professionals invited ● 2500 guests, 80,000 people in Place Jemâa El Fna 11,800 invitations to official ceremonies ● 4500 people invited to official dinners
Artists ● +1300 artists ● +100 shows per edition	Large media coverage ● 370 representatives of national press ● 113 international journalists from 14 countries
Large media coverage ● 160 international journalists ● +600 national journalists ● 220 press support	Faithful partners ● 48 national partners and 6 international partners Staff ● 1250 hired employees, 300,000 hours of work ● 60 national and international suppliers

Source: Data retrieved from the official festivals' websites: <http://www.mawazine.ma/en/le-festival/chiffres-cles/> and <http://www.festivalmarrakech.info/en/others/festival-key-figures>

fifth. The two are the most representative of the Arabic and French media since the majority of the Moroccan readership is either Arabic or French. Table 4 gives additional information about the newspapers.

Second, the analysis has shown that many of the visual cues/frames (basically cartoons) are mediatized through the following social media platforms: Facebook, blogs, and YouTube. Such platforms are mostly representative and indicative because they helped us to understand how media dynamics affect positively or negatively the festival market in Morocco. The last media type that constituted the corpus of our analysis was the festival official websites. By examining the words, messages, and headlines, we found out that media valences can lead to an understanding of how media dynamics help promote arts festivals in Morocco. As de Vreese and Boomgaarden (2006) asserted, frames possess either a positive, neutral, or negative valence. Valence, as Levin (1987, p. 85) defined it, is "where an attribute, object, or event is framed either positively or negatively." It should also be noted that frames in the news can be identified and measured by the degree of presence or absence of particular key words, key phrases, fixed images, sources of information, and sentences which provide textually and thematically reinforcing vectors and clusters of special facts or judgments (Entman, 1993, p. 52).

It is important to mention that this study is unable to encompass all forms of media. Therefore, the findings and discussion we carried out do not provide a comprehensive view, nor do they answer all questions that concern the role and importance of media dynamics in promoting Moroccan arts festivals.

Table 4. Characteristics of newspapers.

Newspaper characteristics	<i>Le Matin</i>	<i>Assabah</i>
Date established	1972	2000
Language(s)	French	Arabic
Location	Casablanca	Casablanca
Geo coverage	National	Local or Regional
Frequency	Daily	Daily
Type	Generalist Newspaper	Generalist Newspaper
Format	Print and online	Print and online
Circulation range	10,000–25,000	50,000–100,000
Political affiliation	None	None
Religious affiliation	None	None

Source: Data retrieved from <https://www.4imn.com/ma/>

Results and discussion

Media lenses: The pro- and anti-festivals frame

In this part of the study, four media types will be addressed. These are: social media platforms (Facebook, blogs, and YouTube postings), online newspapers (*Assabah* and *Le Matin*), festival official websites (MFRW and MIFF), and finally cartoons. We will be analyzing the above media forms in terms of the word/phrase choice, captions, sentences, facts, quotes, jokes, and stories that all play into creating a semantic field or theme (and therefore a frame). Indeed, the framing analysis along with the qualitative and quantitative methods adopted in this study will be tied to the content analysis (Neuendorf, 2017) as the nature of frames is abstract (Ryan, 1991). Table 5 traces six frames in three media forms (Facebook, blogs, and YouTube).

RQ2 asked how the media coverage of MFRW and MIFF resonates with public opinion. To answer this question, three forms of social media were analyzed for six frames: cultural frame, political frame, economic frame, leisure frame, morality frame, and public opinion frame. These themes emerged after the analysis of a total of 40 frames that were identified in three media forms: Facebook, blogs, and YouTube. The public opinion frame on Facebook was ranked the first with 10 out of 40 occurrences (25%). Most of the comments left on the page, such as “boycott mawazine,” “number of police

Table 5. Framing MAF through social media.

Media Forms Frames	Social Media					
	Facebook		Blogs		YouTube	
Cultural frame	4	10%	5	12.5%	3	7.5%
Political frame	9	22.5%	12	30%	13	32.5%
Economic frame	4	10%	3	7.5%	7	17.5%
Leisure frame	7	17.5%	8	20%	2	5%
Public opinion frame	10	25%	8	20%	9	22.5
Morality frame	6	15%	4	10%	6	15%
Total	40	100%	40	100%	40	100%

is more than the number of spectators,” “I will not attend,” or “we are all boycotting,” reflect public opinion. In one of the phrases, *maghadich nahdar mawazine* (“I will not go to Mawazine”), we see how media dynamics are at play as it depicts a man wearing a red and green t-shirt symbolizing the Moroccan flag, shouting loudly and screaming his anger. The man is shouting on behalf of all Moroccans (as the flag represents all Moroccan citizens) (see Figure 1).

The dark blue background and the presence of the two logos of Mawazine and the Maroc Culture Association further deepen the message conveyed by the phrase. The political frame occupies the most important item in the blog in Figure 2 that shows a demonstration just opposite the parliament, and a man holding a paper poster with a



Figure 1. A young man screaming in anger, “I will not go to Mawazine.”

Source: <https://www.facebook.com/antimawazin>



Figure 2. A demonstrator in front of the parliament showing his opposition by holding a placard with the slogan “Progress comes by science and development not by singing and dancing.”

Source: <https://anti-mawazine.skyrock.com/>

written slogan in Darija/Moroccan Arabic: *a-taqaddom bi 'ilmi wal binā, machi bil raq9si wal ghinā* (“Progress comes by science and development not by singing and dancing”). This strong message is addressed to: a) the MPs (members of the parliament) who are normally representatives of the nation; b) the authorities/*Makhzen*; and c) the public sphere. The cultural and leisure frames were identified with low percentages: 7.5% for the cultural frame and only 5% for the leisure frame. This did not support research hypothesis (RH)2 and RH3.

The visual politics of the image in Figure 3 are symbolic as it shows some demonstrators (the margin) urging the king’s advisor (the center) Fouad Ali Himma and Mawazine director Mounir Majidi to leave. The French catchphrase *DÉGAGE*, in Arabic *ir'hal*, meaning “leave,” conveys feelings of furiousness highlighted by the use of the red color. In the background we see the Moroccan flag, which suggests that the demonstrators are speaking on behalf of the Moroccan community. This social discontent toward state officials is ironically deepened by complex duality, as shown in Figure 4. The festival is scheduled during exam periods. Between focusing on their studies (exams) and attending Mawazine, many students find themselves torn apart. This shows a dramatic contrast in vision and objective between ordinary citizens and festival organizers/state officials.

Therefore, it follows that the mechanics of framing in these figures [Figures 1, 2, 3, 4] can be captured through four locations. They are a product, i.e., actual “texts” (1). The communicators (2), be they a photographer, a journalist, a YouTuber, a blogger, an anti-festival goer, or an ordinary citizen, posted them on the internet so that the receiver/reader (3) perceives them as “true entities,” which is the case because they are actual “texts” that replicate the reality which says that festivals: a) squander public money (Tjora, 2016), b) hide social inequalities, c) distract students from focusing on their studies, and d) are tools in the hands of politicians/the King’s advisors to serve strategic objectives. Finally, in the (framing) communication process of the above figures, there is a fourth element, which is referred to as culture, a “set of common frames exhibited in the discourse and thinking of most people in a social grouping” (Entman, 1993, p. 53). In



Figure 3. Demonstrators holding slogans urging Mounir Majidi and Fouad Ali Himma (a personal secretary and a royal advisor to King Mohamed VI) to leave.

Source: <http://encgistes.over-blog.com/des-inconv%C3%A9nients-il-y-en-a-aussi>



Figure 4. A juxtaposition of examinations and entertainment times.

Source: <https://www.facebook.com/antimawazin>

support of our thesis, the empirical findings indicated too significant quantitative and qualitative differences in the framing mechanics of the media forms. In the analysis of the questionnaire data, specifically the question that asked *which of the following media forms mostly impact the marketing and commercialization of arts festivals in Morocco?* the majority of the respondents, 182 out of 360, more than 50%, opted for social media (see Table 6). This proves that “social media has incredible power to steer opinions and spread messages, making it both extremely valuable and very risky to use” (Oklobdžija, 2015, p. 585). This supported RH1.

There is evidence, however, that being active on the largest media scale can not only help sustain the festival landmark, as is the case with the Festival Mawazine Official Fan Page on Facebook, which contains approximately 469,018 followers, but it can also undermine it, as seen through the anti-Mawazine movement, which gathered more than 20,000 members on its Facebook page. The movement claims that most of the young people do not need this festival. In fact, the festival distracts students from their studies and exams, and has a negative impact on their academic results/achievements since its organization coincides with the peak of final exam periods. Besides, Moroccans are in need of job opportunities, better salaries, good infrastructure, and a strong health care and education system rather than spending a large sum of money on these festivities. The

Table 6. The impact of media forms on the marketing and commercialization of MAF.

		Frequency	Percent	Valid Percent	Cumulative Percent
Valid	Social Media	182	50.56	50.56	50.56
	Festival Official Website	46	12.77	12.77	63.33
	Online Newspapers	55	15.28	15.28	78.61
	Cartoons	77	21.39	21.39	100.0
	Total	360	100.0	100.0	

Source: fieldwork results.

movement has maintained its opposition to the festivals because it is just a plot to drug Moroccans and make them forget their problems. In line with the political frame, another movement, the February 20 Movement (born in the context of the series of uprisings that swept across the MENA region), demanded the boycotting of Mawazine and even its definitive cancellation. While the movement marked an instance of outright conflict between the anti-festivals and pro-festivals, the workings of media frames, on the other hand, show the inevitability of divergent public responses to cultural phenomena. In reading the overall map of these frames, we come to identify a forked road: 1) those (anti-festivals) who unleashed their criticism on the festival; and 2) those (pro-festivals) in support of the festival's initial objectives and principles in upholding a message of peace, tolerance, coexistence, openness, respect, and dialogue.

Turning now to the experimental evidence on the dynamics of framing within MIFF, we noticed that there is almost an absence of cartoons that mock the event. The amount of negative frames leveled against MFRW outweighs that of MIFF. This makes us ponder why media framing dynamics in MFRW work differently (mostly veering toward negativity) from those in MIFF. In an interview with Hassan Roukh (2021), deputy director in charge of studies at HIACP (Higher Institute of Audiovisual and Cinema Professions, known in French as Institut Supérieur des Métiers de l'Audiovisuel et du Cinéma), we asked about this issue and the role of media framing in promoting arts festivals industries. He asserted that:

With regard to the issue of framing, there are nations who have never visited Morocco but they get to know the country through music industry, theatre, photography, antiques ... and most importantly cinema industry. This is in one sense, then, through the mediatization of culture – and here I am referring to the example of Marrakech International Film Festival – that Morocco's cinematic image is heavily present in the international film festival arena. Whereas in the framing of MIFF, there is a public opinion, steered by social media that went on defacing the festival glamor. For MIFF, I think that the festival administration took specific measures to make the festival a success by examining the public's response to media framing and develop an action plan. In this respect, the organizers learned a lot from foreign experiences in the field, especially the Italian and French models. (Roukh, 2021)

From this perspective, it has become possible to problematize how the mechanics of framing arts festivals in the Moroccan context are torn between praise and disapproval, acceptance and rejection, continuity and discontinuity, unification and confrontation, engagement and disengagement. Thus, the contested public sphere of festivals is facing challenges heightened by an “environment of digitality,” or what Robert Hassan (2020) called “the culture of digitality,” making framing difficult to define. In using Robert Hassan's term of *digital culture*, we intend to account for how meanings (frames), under the context of digitality, are formed “through a non-recognition of the cause and effect of digital communication” (Hassan, 2020, p. 145). Therefore, to move the understanding of framing forward, scholars such as Colbert and Ravanas (2019) asserted that managers working in the cultural milieu need to carefully think about the choices of marketing strategies. In this respect, festival managers, organizers, and planners should be aware of the framework within which the current practices of media framing are operating.

Another statistically significant element that marked the media frame dynamics in promoting arts festivals in Morocco is the online newspapers *Assabah* and *Le Matin*. With a total of 40 frames (see sample in Table 7) ranging from articles, headlines, rubrics, words, and statements, the analysis demonstrated that the alliteration frame contained a larger percentage (17 out of 40 frames = 35 %), especially in the headlines,

Table 7. Online newspaper frame valence, tolerance and peace-building frame.

Online Newspapers Frames	<i>Assabah</i>				<i>Le Matin</i>			
	MFRW		MIFF		MFRW		MIFF	
Positive frame	7	17.5%	17	42.5%	15	37.5%	15	37.5%
Negative frame	16	40%	6	15%	12	30%	10	25%
Indifference frame	3	7.5%	4	10%	4	10%	3	7.5%
Alliteration frame	14	35%	13	32.5	9	22.5%	12	30%
Total	40	100%	40	100%	40	100%	40	100%

to make them catchy and memorable to the reader. Examples of these frames were found in *Assabah*: *flous cha'ab fin mchaat, fl mihrajanat wlhafalat* (where is public money? ... wasted on festivals and parties); *houma ynadmou mawazine wahna yzido 'alina fel banzin* (they enjoy organizing Mawazine while we pay for the rising gas prices). However, the positive frame in *Le Matin* was present by 37.5%. Statements such as *Karol G et Maluma ont chauffé l'ambiance//fait danser le public//un show riche en émotions//Will.i.am a répété « Morocco is the future »//signé une belle entrée sur scène//un beau concert plein d'émotions et d'énergie//Ils avaient hâte de retrouver leur public marocain//fait le bonheur des milliers de fans//un message de paix* and many more reveal a positive tone for MFRW. The indifference frame did not obtain a large number in the newspapers. For MFRW, only three occurrences were found in *Assabah*, and for MIFF, four occurrences were found. In *Le Matin*, four occurrences for MFRW and three for MIFF were found.

These findings directly support RQ1 and RQ2 with negative valence representing 16 out of 40 times = 40 % of the total 40 frames examined in *Assabah* and 12 out of 40 times = 30% in *Le Matin*. However, the positive valence in *Assabah* occurred 17 out of 40 times = 42% as the highest score. Indeed, the valence of frames has wide-ranging effects on framing and viewer perceptions. Therefore, the positive framing in both newspapers “generates more positive associations and thus seems more attractive, than negatively framed options” (Krishnamurthy, Reese *et al.*, 2001, p. 382).

In the light of the three frames (see Table 8), we tried to answer RQ3, which asked in what way(s) do authorities make use of the competing media narratives and media frames to sustain the festival landmark? The findings (retrieved from the festivals' official websites) indicate that the Morocco image frame (17 out of 40 frames = 40.5%) and art industry frame (18 out of 40 frames = 45%) were more prevalent than the peace and tolerance frame. In fact, the two festivals make use of these media (websites) frame dynamics to promote the festival market. MFRW uses this platform to “promote the Kingdom's values and upholds a message of tolerance, openness, respect and dialogue,” and also to “bring together top-notch names in Arab, African, and international music.” As for the MIFF official website, the platform helps the festival to “encourage the film creation, its promotion and its distribution in the Kingdom of Morocco and in the world.” Overall, words/phrases that are found respectively on these two websites such as *attract; promote; honor; encourage; bringing together cultures; making the world a better place; take film lovers around the world; envision a more peaceful world; sustaining the local economic fabric; attract as many as 2.5 million*

Table 8. The frames of the festivals' official websites.

Festival Official Websites Frames	Mawazine Festival World	Rhythms of the World	Marrakech International Film Festival	
Peace and tolerance frame	13	32.5%	10	25%
Art industry frame	10	25%	18	45%
Morocco image frame	17	42.5%	12	30%
Total	40	100%	40	100%

spectators; fostering the development of the national music and entertainment industry; making Morocco shine; receive accreditations; apprehends all the cultures of the world... and so on, frame the festival market and the mediatization of arts festivals at the local and global level.

These frames are very indicative because they narrate a story which appeals to the Moroccan audience. In this respect, the choice of words/phrases, expressions, headings, etc. creates a frame that can determine what consumers should perceive as important (Tiegreen & Newman, 2008). In effect, “journalists decide which facts to include or emphasize, whom to use as sources, and what is really ‘at issue’” (Gamson & Modigliani, 1989, p. 37).

Building on this, we argue that multiculturalism, tolerance, and peace building is an officially supported frame. Thus, these findings support strongly RH2 and RH3. This is expressed in a variety of ways. For example, in the words of Mollen and Wilson (2010), the royal advisor, festivals are meant “to say to the world that we in Morocco have an ancient heritage in the field of tolerance and coexistence. We also want to preserve that heritage and to protect it against oblivion and marginalization, and against the negative impact and pollution of political turmoil” (cited in Boum, 2012). In addition, the peace and tolerance frame and Morocco image frame are officialized through the words of Prince Moulay Rachid, President of the Marrakech International Film Festival Foundation: “The Marrakech International Film Festival returns, once again passionately driven by the values that inspire us: bringing together cultures and encountering other people and ideas to contribute to making the world a better place for all” (Rachid, 2013).

As for the art industry frame, the key figures (see Table 8) retrieved accordingly from the two official websites (MFRW and MIFF) show that there is a thematic selection (i.e., thematic qualities), a content which is presented to viewers (McCombs, 1997). The thematic selection of public attendance, media coverage, stages, days, staff... etc. is highlighted by reputable statistics. However, for an anti-festival these statistics are far from being consumed or processed. Tankard *et al.* (1991) pointed out the central organizing idea for news content that supplies a context and suggests what the issue is through the use of selection, emphasis, exclusion, and elaboration. Thus, understanding media frame dynamics: a) can help identify audiences' perceptions of the arts festivals market, by demarcating what and how they think; and b) can affect the audience's overall interpretation of a news report (Tjora, 2016). In fact, media framing of the culture of festivalization (Tjora, 2016) in Morocco resonates with the social effervescence and emotional energy as generated by the needs of the post-industrial society. This new form of festivalization does not come out of the blue. It is a process that Sandywell (2004) qualified as “McFestivalization,” which follows a set of pre-established directives and dictates.

To problematize the issue of media frame dynamics and McFestivalization, we can speak of what can be called *McMediatization*. Simply put, we argue that the media coverage of arts festivals is subject to the process(es) of standardization, commercialization, sanitization, homogenization, conformity, and uniformity, which is altogether framed and selected for consumer consumption. These processes/principles remind us of a similar system of operation, mainly *McDonaldization*, in which “four principles – *efficiency, calculability, predictability, and control* – lie at the heart of the success of McDonald” (Ritzer, 2021, p. 20).

On this interpretation, the four principles can be applied to other settings. This will help us understand the mechanics by which the McMediatization of arts festivals selects and affects what a consumer views as significant and appealing, while it can also show us how these mechanics operate efficiently in calculating, predicting, and controlling consumers’ wants and needs (for a more discussion of the concept of *McDonaldization* and its four principles, and how they operate in other settings, see, for instance, Hayes & B. Scheufele, 2006; Quinn, 2005; Teddlie & Abbas, 2003; Tjora, 2016). Therefore, McMediatization, we argue, can be articulated in the more foundational terms of a cultural, political, economic, or, indeed, an epistemological and existential condition or exigency (Morocco & Ruchti, 2011).

In using the term *McMediatization* of arts festivals, we drive the idea even further to follow Stuart Hall’s definition of a “discursive” approach to the analysis of cultural representation and its effect on media coverage of arts festivals:

The discursive approach examines not only how language and representation produce meaning, but how the knowledge which a particular discourse produces connects with power, regulates conduct, makes up or constructs identities and subjectivities, and defines the way certain things are represented, thought about, practiced and studied. The emphasis in the discursive approach is always on the historical specificity of a particular form or ‘regime’ of representation: not on language as a general concern, but on specific languages or meanings, and how they are deployed at particular times, in particular places. It points us towards greater historical specificity – the way representational practices operate in concrete historical situations, in actual practice. (Hall, 2007, p. 6)

Arguably, it is apt to contend that the McMediatization of arts festivals Morocco produces a “particular discourse,” “regime of representation,” by which specific information is deployed, framed, and tailored to penetrate more deeply into everyday consciousness and influence the realm of our *Lebenswelt* or lifeworld. Hence, the way these discourses are McMediatized pertains to the Moroccan lifeworld because the focus is shared on what we as Moroccans and even non-Moroccans perceive as information rather than how it is perceived (Ramisetti, 2015, p. 642). Our argument in adopting Husserl’s concept of the *Lebenswelt* or lifeworld for the dynamics of media framing is to contribute to the rethinking of “the dynamics of media framing” out of Max Weber’s iron cage. In this respect, we argue that, in order to get out of the iron cage (McMediatization), i.e., not to be blind consumers of media (frames), it is not sufficient to pull the bars of the cage apart. Even replacing the iron cage with a rubber cage does not resolve the problem because, as Sybille Krämer put it, “Everything we can say, find out and know about the world is being said, found out and known with the help of media” (Krämer, 1998, p. 73). When we asked the respondents about whether they believe that the dynamics of media framing/McMediatization (the case of social media, festival official websites, online newspapers, or cartoons, for instance) affect positively and/or negatively the culture of festivalization in Morocco, we found diverse opinions. Figure 5 shows this divergence.

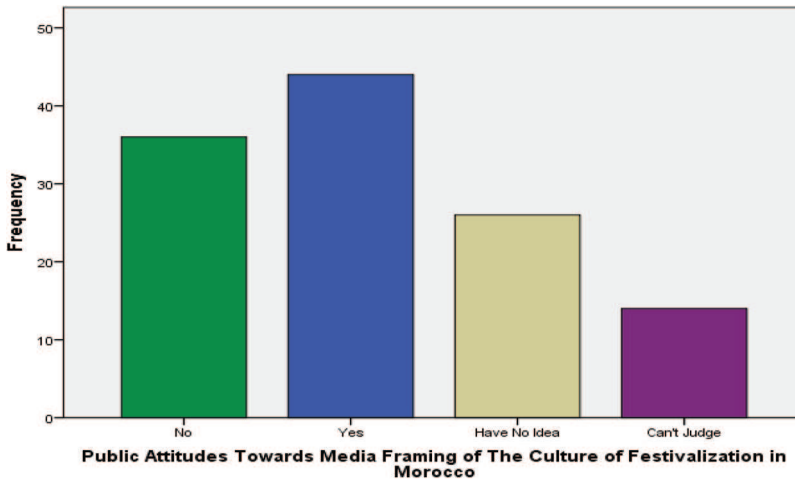


Figure 5. The culture of festivalization in Morocco between positive and negative media framing. Source: Fieldwork results.

But what can be retained is that more than 40% affirmed that media framing potentially affects the audience's perception of arts festivals. From our point of view, our lifeworld (including arts festivals) is shaped and framed by certain "cages." Therefore, the challenge lies in how we adopt and/or get adapted to them.

The culture commodification frame

The last media form analyzed in this study is the cartoons. Indeed, in an attempt to answer RQ2, which asked how the media coverage/framing of MFRW differs from that of MIFF and how it resonates with public opinion, 20 cartoons (see sample figures below) were analyzed using four frames/themes: irony frame, stereotypes frame, analogy/allusion frame, and exaggeration frame. A textual discourse analysis was conducted on each cartoon to define how the semiotic resources including the use of colors, words, backgrounds, phrases, logos, signs, and slogans are selected, placed, and disseminated through the mechanics of framing. The workings of these mechanisms are used by the cartoonists as means to reach out to a large audience by the use of "simplification, personalization and symbolization" (Entman, 1989, p. 49). The scores in the four-frame categories revealed that the stereotypes frame was higher by 35%, 7 of 20 cartoons basically made up of clichés as a springboard to mediate the message. In the cartoon in Figure 6, for instance, the use of the donkey to vehicle the message of "boycotting Mawazine" represents the endorsed and culturally anchored image of the donkey in Moroccan popular culture (RH1 confirmed). In the cartoon, we can read *hamlat kha'lih yharnat/* (a campaign of: let him/her bray). The frame works under three mechanisms: simplification, symbolization, and personalization. Simplification and symbolization refer to the cartoonist's choice of using the donkey image/stereotype, which is meant for two reasons: 1) to direct and attract the readers' attention (because its connotation is known and familiar to all Moroccans); and 2) to facilitate the task of interpreting the message. As for personalization, we note the use of the human body and donkey head. Yet, the "donkey frame" can work the other way around since donkeys do not represent a



Figure 6. A donkey Mawazine artist braying (singing).

negative side all the time. Donkeys are working animals: they pull loads and carts and work mills and wells. They are very patient and stable companions for nervous animals (horses for example). Even in Morocco the image of a donkey is not always negative as there is a national celebration called Donkey Day (for more details see, for instance, Gianaris, 2020). Therefore, if the negative representation of the donkey is meant to work within the Moroccan context, it will not function similarly and automatically around the globe. A good example is the use of the donkey mascot by the US Democrats. The US Democratic Party made the donkey its symbol, and this achieved popularity inside and outside the States.

Source: <https://www.facebook.com/antimawazin>

This may be noted as an interesting point in the ways the dynamics of framing operate and shift from context/country to another. It is also very telling and of additional interest in that it reflects the ways the media make use of frames to serve their agendas. Drawing again from the vantage point of the culture commodification frame, the cartoon in Figure 7 shows the Moroccan rapper Don Bigg as a wind-up toy tagged as “small,” but with much energy as he invites the audience to put up their hands up in the air and keep them up. In the background a guy is selling *zatla*, *qarqobi*, *ma'joun*, *garou deta'y*, and *garmalou*. *Zatla* is a drug that resembles a bar of black chocolate, *qarqobi* are strong psychiatric pills, *ma'joun* is a dough made of narcotics, *garou deta'y* refers to tobacco retailing, and *garmalou* is all types of groundnuts/peanuts that are fired on the stove top using sand. A scene which strengthens the drug-taking stereotype of a festival goer (Morgan, 2014). The audience are represented here by a fan who naively expresses his joy and admiration, saying in Darija: *wii ... naari khaaser* (yeah, he is terrific). Doped by the presence of his favorite artist, the fan gives the hand of *Sajid wa choraka'oho* “Sajed and his partners” the opportunity to steal what is in his pocket. Mohamed Sajid, who occupies the position of the mayor of Casablanca (at the time of writing) and was elected as the Secretary General of the Constitutional Union Party, is a man of business and politics. In this interpretation we argue that the stealing hand that picks the fan's



Figure 7. The Moroccan rap singer Don Big (Small) performing like a wind-up toy machine.

Source: <https://www.facebook.com/antimawazine/>

pocket refers to that of *Makhzen* since Sajid is himself a representative of that system. In the framing of this scene, we can, therefore, read a story which narrates how culture (arts festivals) is being commoditized and instrumentalized to serve state agendas. The artists themselves, as shown in the cartoon, are agents made to function like a wind-up toy. The words *flous chaa'b* (people's money) (written on the performing stage) is what actually makes these wind-up machines run/work. These machines (artists) which are fueled by public funds are meant to entertain or rather to distract the audience/people from social and economic problems. While the culture commodification frame lends itself to representing *Makhzen*/state as a doer/producer, an agent that turns the key of the wind-up toy and meanwhile prevents it from slowing to a halt, on the other hand, it depicts the audience/people as a consumer whose appetite for arts performances is overt. As Neuendorf (2017, p. 161) has insightfully noted, music festivals such as Mawazine reflect a success that is not only marked by "the political and economic power of the monarchy and the *Makhzen*, but also the yearning for cultural events." Yet, in reading the Moroccan cultural map, we can identify some "outcast" rappers/artists who refused to be co-opted by the system, i.e., who abstained from playing the role of wind-up machines. A case in point is the rapper Mouad Belghawate, known by his nickname lhaqd, "The Enraged," and whose songs such as *Baraka Men Skate* (Stop the Silence) or *Klab Dawla* (Dogs of the State) contrast starkly with the state's politics and the monarchy's hegemony. In the song *Klab Dawla*, lhaqd harshly criticizes the police for its brutality and corruption:

Wa yakma lqitini tangrissi

Hey! (addressing the policeman) Did you find me mugging or what?

*Ta ched faassa li qasmou lblaad
assi lbolissi*

Instead, go and catch *Fassi people who have looted the country, Mr. policeman

Wa yakma gallik chef lkbiir

Hey! Did your commander ask you:

<i>Siiir jib chii masso kbiik</i>	Go and bring megabucks (a lot of money),
<i>Wlla ghadi ndiir lik taghyiir</i>	Or I will reappoint you,
<i>Nsaayftaak lfiguig</i>	I will send you to *Figuig
<i>Bflouss naass lmzaaliit</i>	using the money I get from the poor people

Note: *(Fassi people are one of the wealthiest families in Morocco. They hold key positions in the economic and political sector, while *Figuig refers to a remote city in the far east of Morocco.)

The Moroccan rapper has been a prominent figure for his “politics of revenge” against the state security apparatus system. Ihaqd was also the February 20 movement’s voice in denouncing police corruption and brutality, unemployment, poverty, and social inequality. In 2012, Ihaqd was given a four-month prison sentence after being charged for posting the YouTube music video *Klab Dawla*, which featured a policeman with the head of a donkey (reproducing therefore the endorsed and culturally anchored frame/image of the donkey in Moroccan popular culture). Following this incident, a national campaign was launched online under the hashtag #freelhaqd. The rapper was released but got incarcerated many times for his dissidence and for threatening state national security and stability, before he eventually went to seek political asylum in Belgium. Another dissident artist, Mohamed Mounir, who performs under the name Gnawi, went through the same ordeal. In 2019, a video posted online criticizing the police was enough to send Gnawi to prison for one year and to order him to pay a fine of 1000 dirhams (100 USD). Amnesty International’s Middle East and North Africa Director Heba Morayef (2019) said: “This verdict sends a clear message that the Moroccan authorities will not hesitate to clamp down on people who freely speak their minds and indicates that those who dare to openly criticize the authorities will face punishment.” Although some artists did not face similar politically charged cases, they were, on the other hand, either marginalized by the system (*Makhzen*) and/or banned from showcasing on public media. This is exactly what happened to the humorist Said Naciri (2011), when he gave a sketch on the Moroccan state-run TV channel 2 M on the occasion of honoring Abdelkader Moutaa, one of the greatest cinematic and television Moroccan figures. The sketch is an anecdote which goes as follows:

I dreamt, one day, I woke up in the morning and found myself a DOG! Not a beautiful dog, but an ugly one with all sorts of parasites (fleas, ticks, mites). I was scratching all my body parts. At first, I thought myself I was dreaming. I pinched myself to realize that it is not a dream. I, in fact, found out I bit myself instead. As I started shouting (indeed barking), my family heard the voice and rushed towards me to find the dog (me) “I am your son, Said Naciri” I said (barked). The more I shouted (barked) to make them believe I am their son, the more they started beating me hard because they are unable to conceive that what they see actually is not their son, but a nasty dog. As we could not come to terms, I rushed out wandering the city streets until I arrived at an administration building site. The man (donkey) at the front door stopped me from getting inside. I barked at him while he brays in return. I got angry and I barked out loud and growled, showing my teeth wide open. Finally, he let me in. *Naciri addresses the audience saying: “when you face a donkey (a guard) at the front door of an administration building, just bark and growl. It works!”* (Back to the story): When I went upstairs I found many animals. I found a handsome doctor (a human being talking to me in dog language): “Son, no worries! This is a pandemic ravaging all the country. What you see here is that all these animals were human beings before the pandemic, but unfortunately, they lost their ethics, principles and humanitarian values. Therefore, they woke up and found themselves animals. You see that serpent over there. She was a secretary in a multinational company. She was a crook and the cause behind the separation of the boss and his wife. And you see that wolf and fox over there. They were MPs. They were doing crooked businesses and falsifications. And you remember that

donkey whom you met at the front door! He was a great boss, but with the outbreak of the February 20 movement you see how things went upside down with him.” “But, doctor, my case is different. I was an artist.” “Yes, you were, but you did not respect your art. You did not respect your audience who were applauding you warmly. You showcased rubbish/trivial issues on TV. People (your audience) spent money buying tickets to attend your shows. The consequence is your audience do not respect you anymore and now you become a DOG.” “But how can I save the situation?” “It is easy. You will live for some days a dog lifestyle and when you reconsider your actions (the quality of your work) and respect your audience, you will regain your original nature, that of a human being.” I said, “it is all right, but how can I survive with the new situation (living among dogs)?” The doctor replied: “Never mind, we are hiring a Spanish dog coach to help you deal with the new situation.” I said, “Come on, why do you call for foreign help/dogs? And you know how the country is full of dogs for this type of work?” He said: “Stop talking politics or the dogs (of the state police) will come and arrest you” [...] The Spanish dog coach said, “Hey! Mr. Said Naciri, let’s go” [...] We arrived at a big villa that looks like a palace. He told me: “This is the place where you, and all the world animals and I have been invited to celebrate the birthday of this dog.” To my surprise I saw a man tied to the villa’s front door. I wondered and meanwhile I asked my companion: “What is he doing here?” He told me he is guarding the villa. I said: “Wow! This reminds me of a famous movie: *Rise of the Planet of the Apes*.” He told me: “That is science fiction my friend, but what you see right now is pure reality!” I saw many dogs arriving in luxurious cars driven by wolves. You can see each dog getting out of the car, accompanied by a she-dog. The scene reflects a respectful and organized community of dogs. As I was entering the villa, two dogs stopped me. “Do you have papers?” they asked. I said: “Which ones?” “Are you vaccinated?” they asked. “I have never been vaccinated when I was a human let alone now that I become a dog,” I mockingly replied. My Spanish companion intervened and said: “He is with me,” then they let me in. I saw a big dog smoking cigar, surrounded by little she-dogs. One of the female dogs (poodle) approached me and got disgusted by my stinky odors. I felt inferior and mortified [...] After a while, a barbecue (a grilled like-human body) was served. One of the dogs told me: “help yourself!” I said: “NO, I CANNOT. I am not used to eating human flesh.” Suddenly, I heard some noise and dogs barking. “What is going on?” I inquired. One of the dogs said, “You can’t believe it. The man tied to the villa’s front door got unleashed and went inside. He had stolen the meat (human flesh) and ran away.” I said: “Well, it’s normal. When I was a human, we saw dogs getting inside houses, snatching meat and running away.” The dog said: “No! We, DOGS, never eat the flesh of each other because our religion forbids us from doing so”. “Oh! How come! You do have a religion then!” “YES,” the dog replied. “What is it?” I said. He answered me: “The religion of Dogs.” (Naciri, 2011, translated from Arabic by the authors)

Naciri’s sarcastic and satirical sketch is an assertion that any artist can work independently far from the dictates of media framing. What happened at that evening show was against the policies of the Moroccan state-run TV channel 2 M, as the sketch’s content went beyond the purview of the channel attributes and its official media frame narratives. It can be argued, then, that media framing of arts festivals and the Moroccan cultural field, in general, operates under two mechanisms: 1) co-option (assimilation); and 2) resistance (opposition). While some artists engage themselves to work with *Makhzen* and be part of the “state’s narrative,” others choose to voice their opinions using new media platforms “to overcome the dominance of the main patrons of arts, in terms of both symbolic and economic capital” (Almeida, 2017, p. 165). Therefore, the stories of Lhaqed, Gnawi, and Naciri are enough to indicate that the new digital landscape has, in fact, resonated with the aspirations of many Moroccan dissident artists, especially after being marginalized and discarded from showing up in the public media. However, “the curse turned to a blessing” when many artists who were either jailed or marginalized, managed to achieve success and became public celebrities inside and outside the country. The case of Said Naciri exemplifies this. With more than

3,000,000 views on his YouTube channel, Naciri's "Come Back" marked immeasurably a success through his sitcom "The Boy." The sitcom reached number one in the Moroccan digital trend shows, especially during the holy month of Ramadan. Similarly, after posting on YouTube the song *Aâcha El Chaâb* (Long Live the People) on 29 October 2019, in which the Moroccan rapper Mohamed Mounir (Gnawi) criticizes the Moroccan authorities (*Makhzen*) and subtly makes a derogatory reference to the monarchy, the song went viral and gained over than 15 million views. Building on this, we argue that the new digital landscape has recently gained prominence and ultimately reshaped the cultural field in Morocco, as it has opened new realms for branding and commercializing arts at less cost, and reaching out quickly to the public locally and globally compared to traditional media (TV or radio for instance) that are less effective and often do not respond to the evolving needs and expectations of the audience. Therefore, it is apt to argue here that the new forms of digitality including, but not limited to, Facebook, YouTube, Twitter, Instagram, or Tik-Tok have basically yielded shifts in the culture of festivalization in Morocco, which will directly and indirectly exert pressure on event planners to attune their marketing and commercialization strategies to meet the audiences' interests. This pressure is explainable in respect of the changing circumstances which are marked by "the huge expansions in the consumption of mass media products in the home and a corresponding rise in diverse patterns of culture as well as leisure and tourism" (Quinn, 2005, p. 930).

Keeping track of our discussion of the dynamics of media framing, we found in the cartoon in Figure 8 how the notion of *Makhzen* is vehiculed through the mechanisms of symbolization and personalization. We see a traditional obese man wearing a Moroccan *djellaba*, "a long and loose type of robe that is often worn over the top of other clothes" and a *tarbouch*, "often known as the Fez hat/peaked cap." The man with a swollen belly on which is written in Arabic *Makhzen* (the state power) is holding a satchel filled with

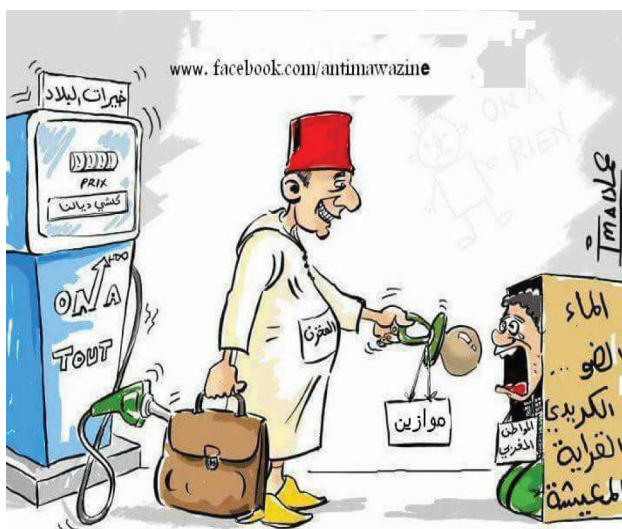


Figure 8. The personalization of *Makhzen*: *Makhzen* treats social problems by using arts festivals (as pacifiers).

Source: <https://www.facebook.com/antimawazin>

khayrat lblaad (the country's bounties). On the petrol pump's price indicator, we can read *koulchi dialna* (all is ours). This *dialna* (ours), which basically belongs to the *Makhzen*, is juxtaposed with the *chaa'b* (people) represented by *Imowatin Imaghribi* (the Moroccan citizen). Unfortunately, this citizen is imprisoned by certain worries inside the cardboard box, on which is written *lmaa, daw, lcridi, lqraya, lma'ichaa* (water, electricity, loans, education, living costs). But who is going to be the savior? Is it the obese man/*Makhzen*? Until then, there is a way to allay the citizen's anger and that of the *chaa'b* (people): offer a pacifier to latch on to and suck. In the reading of the cartoon, we note that the first part of the French slogan "on a tout," meaning we have everything, rhymes with the former name of the royal holding ONA (Omnium nord-africain), which was dissolved in 2010 and succeeded by SNI (Société Nationale d'Investissement). The royal holding, which recently changed its name to "Al Mada" (literally meaning perspective) in 2018, has been active at the national and international level, especially in the pan-African scene (present in 24 African countries) with an investment capital of 600 million euros. The group has diversified its activity in various sectors, ranging from the food industry, distribution, mining, telecommunications, energy, and environment to financial activities. It also supports promoting various cultural programs, and local and foreign arts and artists through charitable foundations such as the ex-ONA Foundation. This supported RH2.

In Figure 9, we can see an overweight man (in an office-like setting) sitting not on a chair but on a big bundle, below which is written in MSA (Modern Standard Arabic) *mizaniyat Mawazine* (Mawzine budget). To their surprise, *chaa'b* (the people) who come to the man's office to claim their rights by asking for *machari'i* (projects) and *tanmiya* (development) get bad news as the man informs them: *lil assaf, mizaniya salat* (Unfortunately, the budget is over), contrary to the Mawazine budget, which is



Figure 9. The personalization of *Makhzen*: *chaa'b* (people) manifesting against a state responsible (representative of *Makhzen*) and are asking for projects and development.

Source: <https://www.facebook.com/antimawazin>

safe and under control. This proves that the support/patronage given to arts festivals such as Mawazine is characterized by fluidity and continuity. This view is supported by Said Oudadene (2013, p. 263), who in his article “Cultural Production and Cultural Patronage in Morocco: The State, the Islamists, and the Field of Culture,” writes that: “patronage provides the context and framework for cultural production in postcolonial Morocco [...] much of the cultural production spearheaded by the monarch such as the mega music and film festivals or funded by state institutions.” Mega festivals as in the case of MFRW are considered the “king’s festival” since they fall within the realms of Association Maroc Culture (AMC), which was headed by Mounir Majidi, a royal advisor and personal secretary of King Mohamed VI (Boum, 2012). Through AMC, Majidi turned MFRW into an international mega event by bringing a new economic model for the event, which led to higher profits, all the while providing quality shows and free entry for 95% of the attendees (Anderson, 2014). Now, AMC is under the presidency of Abdeslam Ahizoune, who is the chief executive officer of Maroc Telecom, the main Moroccan telecommunications company in Morocco. Ahizoune (2019) reaffirmed that Mawazine is “Placed under the High Patronage of His Majesty King Mohammed VI.” Amid all this, the framing of the festival did not escape harsh criticism and polemical disputes over its reputation that touched upon Morocco’s image locally and globally. The framing dynamics outlined in the following section will explore more the ways in which caricaturists, by means of ludicrous and gross distortion, represent arts festivals.

The exaggeration/nudity frame

To answer RQ3, which asked about the way(s) authorities make use of the competing media narratives and media frames to sustain the festival, we identified key frames (themes) in our analysis of the cartoons. This last significant frame identified in this set of cartoons is the exaggeration/nudity frame, occurring 6 out of 20 times (30%), with negative valence up to 15% of the total set. The frame derives power from its symbolic significance (Reese *et al.*, 2001) as it is depicted in the cartoon in Figure 10. The festival goer is almost naked with a *gouffa* (shopping bag) hiding his private parts and ironically asking for Mawazine instead of clothes. These first words: *ach khassak al ‘aryan...?* (you naked, what do you want/need?) remind us of a Moroccan popular proverb which narrates the following: Two people were talking. A, who is apparently rich, well dressed, and in good shape, asked B, who is very poor, not dressed at all and completely naked, *ach khassak al ‘aryan...?* (you naked, what do you want/need?). A was expecting: “I want clothes, a blanket, a tissue, a piece of cloth, something to put on, at least to hide my private parts,” but to the surprise of A, B immediately answers: *Khatem aMoulay* (I want/need a ring, sir). In the cartoon, we can read how the man replies: *Mawazine a moulay* (I want Mawazine, sir). In the original story, the man preferred a ring to clothes. In the current context, the man preferred Mawazine to more serious and vital things that the people are demanding, such as building a strong infrastructure, improving the health care system, creating job opportunities, calling for gender equity, improving the educational system, easing interclass tensions, especially between the so-called *bouzebal* (poor people) and *kilimini* (the elites), fighting antisocial forms of violence (*tchermil* for instance), or thinking of ways to deal with the overall mounting social discontent. Thus, the choice which the man made through his words “I want Mawazine, sir” and his actions, following the signboard which leads to the Mawazine site, reflects the



Figure 10. Framing nudity differently. A festival goer hiding his private parts and heading for Mawazine.

festival goer's determination to attend the show against an "ugly reality," which is marked by *laa'ra* (nudity), *faqr* (poverty), *jou'e* (hanger), *ard kahla* (black soil), and *triq jenb lhafa* (a cliff-like road). The choice of going to the festival amid all these socio-economic problems has unwillingly washed over the man's face.

The framing dynamics here posit a message that Mawazine festival goers have been indoctrinated and subdued to follow the dictates of the status quo. As counter-voices are rising against the festival, we read the following slogan: *brina khoubza w koumira, machi raqs dial Shakira* (we want bread rounds and baguettes not Shakira's belly dances). However, there seems to be a paradox in the Moroccan public sphere vis-à-vis arts performances, especially when it comes to artists whose performances show sexually suggestive behavior. A case in point is the Puerto-Rican American pop star Jennifer Lopez (J.Lo), whose performance in the 15th edition of MFRW, 2015 created a scandal, notably after it had been broadcast live on the Moroccan public television channel 2 M. The show mesmerized thousands of festival attendees who had flocked to the OLM Souissi stage to see the scantily clad singer and meanwhile stirred fierce reactions from government officials. In a letter addressed to HACA (Haute Autorité de la Communication Audiovisuelle/The High Authority of Audiovisual Communication), Morocco's chief of government and head of the party Justice and Development, Abdelilah Benkiran, considered the broadcast of the concert "a blatant violation of the Moroccan Constitution, of audiovisual legislation, and legal provisions related to the company SOREAD 2 M." Benkiran criticized the show because it contained "sexually charged scenes, against the decency, moral and religious values of Moroccan society and upsetting to the viewers." For his part, the ex-Minister of Communication Mustapha Khalfi tweeted, "What was broadcast is unacceptable and goes against broadcasting law." Against the widespread protests from politicians, Islamic groups, and many Moroccans, the pendulum eventually swung in the opposite direction. The show was a success as it gathered 160,000 fans of a total of 2.65 million spectators who attended the 15th edition of MFRW. National and international online media had characterized J.Lo's show as both

significant and contested, and many stark, witty intriguing headlines from various media sources described it as follows: “Jennifer Lopez Hit with Lawsuit for Sexy Performance at Morocco Concert: Report” (Ramisetti, 2015); “Jennifer Lopez Moroccan Concert Sparks Calls for Minister’s Resignation” (BBC News, 2015); “Maroc : Jennifer Lopez au cœur d’un ouragan médiatique” (Vincelot, 2015); “Mawazine 2015 : la superstar Jennifer Lopez en concert d’ouverture” (Maroc Hebdo, 2015); “Jennifer Lopez : un concert scandale au Maroc” (Seguin, 2015); “VIDEO – Jennifer Lopez enflamme Mawazine” (Savage, 2015), and so on. By examining the situation in the media space, some argue that this escalation of headlines has spoiled the positive image of Mawazine, but on the grounds that the audience interacted hysterically. This duality toward the way Moroccans perceive arts shows again throws into question the issue of pro- and anti-festival. In an interview with the director of Visa for Music and member of International Committee for All Africa Music Awards, MFAACME (2021, July 21) stressed that:

The majority of people who are against arts festivals hold somewhat radical views which do not represent all Moroccans. These festival opponents tend to speak on behalf of the Moroccan society, knowing that no one gives them official permission to do so. Their views are purely personal and should be respected, but do not reflect the general public opinion. What is more is that the majority of those who hold such views are themselves heavy consumers of arts performances. In addition, when we look at the huge number of people (young and old, male and female) who descend *en masse* to the festivals, we get strong evidence that denies this radical point of view. Perhaps serious questions could be raised if there is low attendance or people do not go to festivals at all, but in picturing the situation in Morocco, we find the reverse. With regard to festivals, Moroccans have a special relation with the public space which differs from many countries in the MENA region. Morocco’s model is unique among many Arab countries and should be emulated. However, the “great” number of arts festivals in Morocco is still limited in comparison to other neighboring countries. The number of 10 to 20 international festivals organized every year in the country plus a hundred or so of national and local *moussems* and festivals is far from that of Spain or France for instance where more than 3000 festivals take place every year. (Personal communication, July 21, 2021)

To be sure, following the Jennifer Lopez concert, the dispute over MFRW has deepened a rift within the Moroccan public sphere. Against the massive audience that attended Lopez’s “Waiting for Tonight” performance, some Moroccans went even further, filing a complaint against the American singer for her “scantily dressed and suggestive poses” (Ramisetti, 2015). The complainants were seeking to prosecute and convict J.Lo for her show, which, according to the Moroccan Penal Code, Article 484 and 129, was an offense to public decency. This could result in the singer being jailed for one month to two years and being ordered to pay a fine of 200 to 500 dirhams (20 to 50 USD). The local public discontent with arts festivals, especially MFRW, caused widespread concern from outside diasporic audiences too. The dissident Moroccan cartoonist and fine artist Abdul Latif Al-Zaraydi, who sought refuge in France, published a cartoon online in CenterBlog (Figure 11) depicting Jennifer Lopez in a doggy-style sex position, a pleasurable position and a favorite one among men and women. In so doing, the cartoonist whets the audience’s sex appetite, featuring Lopez opening wide her legs and nearly exposing her genitals to the audience. Mockingly, the audience here is not young people, but an elderly man known in the Moroccan culture by the name *lhaj* (a man who fulfills the religious duty of going to *Hajj*/Islamic pilgrimage to Mecca). *Lhajj* is taken by surprise by his wife, inquiring whether he is doing his prayers that way. She comments in French: *Ah bon, c’est ainsi que tu fais ta prière!* (Oh, is this how you do your prayers!),

which suggests that *Ihaj* was not doing his prayers at all. This is seen by his erect penis around which a *Tasbih/Subha* (a string of beads used in praying and meditating) is worn. We also read on the screen a witty message: *hana maw'id salat al*(It is time for the . . . prayer). Presumably, it is the prayer of *Isha* (one of the five daily prayers in Islam) since the show is on in the evening, but the cartoonist toys with this logic of reading/interpretation and offers instead an understatement which reads: “it is time for sex.” Yet, is this a way of mocking religion or the religious practices in Moroccan society? Indeed, the cartoonist Al-Zaraydi has confirmed this idea through the comment he made on the blog:

In order to polish its “democratic and civilized” image in front of the international community, the (Moroccan) backward police regime resorts to ugly methods to laugh at the pitfalls by harboring the “art” world stars and promiscuity world, in the so-called lunatic Mawazine Festival, in which exorbitant fortunes were spent at the expense of an oppressed people who have been left with a shroud of traitors to the homeland. Centuries until one day the people’s destiny will be answered and the dust of medieval slavery will be shaken off their skinny body. (Moreno, 2017)

In this respect, Al-Zaraydi stressed the hegemonic role of arts festivals in fulfilling the agendas of the state and its apparatus. Al-Zaraydi is mostly in line with the view of Boum, who asserted that “for the Moroccan state, [...] the festivalization of arts and culture has been a key method of managing dissent, blunting the force of social movements and sanding the political edges off of new forms of cultural expression – all while polishing an image of Morocco as liberal and fun-loving for outside” (Boum, 2012, p. 25). It was from this perspective that the impact of framing on festivals is very decisive in the sense that audience’s opinions can be affected by what is depicted in the media, and this can result in defacing the festival image and brand name. From another viewpoint which is often perpetuated by visual ideological setups, we read that framing was often considered as a form of ideology (Hackett, 1984). In the framing of the cartoon (Figure 11), there are explicit and implicit deep and complex symbolic structures as well as subtle stereotyping, and naturalized and commonsensical messages which can be seen in the juxtapositions between sex and religion, profanity and sacredness, male and female, Orient and Occident, decency and debauchery. Some of these significant communication elements can be explained by the fact that while the “modernist/Occident” singer is depicted as sexy, wearing skimpy outfits, blue undergarments, and posing in a doggy-style position, the wife (Orient), who apparently looks like a housewife/maid, is depicted as obese/old-fashioned, wearing a light blue half-apron, a scarf tied in a purely traditional Moroccan way, and white pajamas. The media gaze in the cartoon (Figure 11) calls into question the reproduction of the stereotypical portrayal of Moroccan women in digital platforms, and brings out for discussion the sustained socially endorsed views of women’s gender roles (MFAACME, 2021). On another level, the framing narrative of the cartoon focuses on the elements of “simplification, personalization, and symbolization” in addition to iconicity, indexicality, and syntactic implicitness so as to reach out to a large audience, and to render their visual representation controversial and filled with ideological messages (Reese, 2007, p. 215). On the whole, the analysis of the cartoons reveals that the media narratives give a negative portrayal of the Mawazine festival in contrast to MIFF, whose framings/narratives have not moved public opinion to the same extent as those of MFRW. On the basis of the analysis, we argue that there is strong



Figure 11. Sex prevails over religion by means of nudity and sexual excitement.

Source: <http://caricatures-du-maroc.centerblog.net/56-jennifer-lopez-est-convertisse-a-islam-de-marrakech>

evidence showing that there is less attention to the impact of MIFF frames on the public. The situation then calls for attention on how to counteract the presence and/or absence of certain prevailing narratives that support one at the expense of the other. It is in this sense that the framing of arts festivals can alter, change, construct, and shape public awareness of the culture of festivalization in Morocco. Such awareness can exert an influence on the part of festival and event organizers to develop new methods and techniques of counter-framing policy which aim at attracting more audiences and that provide avenues for successful marketing and commercialization of Moroccan arts festivals. The last section of this article attempts to provide the event planners with the most important information, methods, and recommendations in the marketing and commercialization of Moroccan arts festivals.

Toward enhancing a digital festival engagement frame

Having discussed the interplay between media framing and art and addressing the various impacts of the former on the festival brand name and image transfer, this section will attempt to enhance our understanding of the dynamics of framing by extending its meaning. The results of this study have shown that the dynamics of framing arts festivals have direct effects on the mediatization of culture in general and attendees' needs, satisfaction, and engagement in particular. We have also seen through the lenses of framing that arts festivals (the case of MFRW and MIFF) are subject to social, economic, cultural, and political agency. Based on the analysis of the four media forms: social media, online newspapers, festival official websites, and cartoons, we argue that the media have transformational power in shaping brand relationship quality (Bowden, 2009; Fournier, 1998; Smit *et al.*, 2007; Xie *et al.*, 2017) and thus promoting arts festivals. There is an urgent need from the part of festival organizers to act professionally and come up with a sort of counter-framing policy, or, to borrow Pascal Bonitzer's (1995)

term, “deframing” (*décadrage*), whose goal is to raise the festival profile, guarantee a crowd to come back, polish the festival brand name/image, resist the totalizing tendencies of thought, and develop techniques/key metrics for the festival to go viral on digital platforms. Informed by the fieldwork we conducted and by the literature as well as knowledge about MFRW and MIFF, we argue that festival organizers, planners, and experts in the field need to foster sufficiently and significantly positive attitudes and “minimize the emotive bias” of framing among publics (Weaver & Lawton, 2013). Drawing on the analysis of the four media forms, we found that the marketing and commercialization of Moroccan arts festivals are mostly impacted by mainstream social media. In light of this point, Oklobdžija (2015) conducted important research which targets the complex relationships between social media and arts festivals, more specifically identifying the festival goers’ feelings and interactions. The study concludes that “if marketers wish to build strong brand relationships, they need to incorporate high levels of emotional content in their marketing communications” (Savage, 2015, p. 74). Digital social channels such as Twitter, Instagram, Tik-Tok, YouTube, or most notably Facebook are salons for discussion, sharing, and mediating experiences, shaping people’s practices and behaviors. More specifically, the amount of emotive content in the digital context can affect the “active relationship with the brand as personified by the website or other computer-mediated entities designed to communicate brand value” (Mollen & Wilson, 2010, p. 5). With regards to media framing and digital consumer engagement, the word-of-mouth marketing technique can be an effective tool for marketers to promote arts festivals and create brand loyalty amongst the community of festival goers, but it can function in the opposite direction if word-of-mouth carries negative, frustrated, or annoyed feelings. An online post on a festival digital platform such as “Wow! You’ve got to check this out, guys” might go viral and create a buzz. By developing or applying social sharing tools such as Sonar Platform, Yotpo, Moz, Sniply, Squarespace, or Clearbit that target the content that fans consume on social media, festival marketers will make their business grow and succeed. By doing so, a database can be created from which a myriad of valuable information can be retained, including but not limited to fans’ needs, wants, expectations, feelings toward the festival, and so forth, which can not only help marketers meet their customers’ functional needs, but will help anticipate them. For this purpose, the case studies bring to light a number of very important points. Actually, during the investigation of the marketing of arts festivals in the Moroccan context, we noticed that there is a lack, if not an absence, of such applications/programs. What is more, the two official websites of MFRW and MIFF respectively do not focus on direct interactive communication. This can be noticed in the way the two websites are designed. In the case of the MFRW official website page (see Figure 12), there are seven rubrics and some sub-rubrics detailed as follows: 1) Home; 2) The Festival (Message from the President – presentation – Business model – Tourism and economic benefits – Key figures – Testimonials – Sponsors); 3) 18 years of Mawazine (18 years of Mawazine – Key figures in the 18 years); 4) The Association (Speeches – All About Maroc Culture – Philosophy and Values – Acknowledgments); 5) Media (News – Media Library – Mawazine Live); 6) Info (Festival Code of Conduct – Stages – Practices – Security – Download the program guide); and 7) INFOLINE. The platform is aesthetically pleasing, with easy-to-read text and easy to navigate, and with clear and documented content and a user-friendly interface, but does not include a festival forum rubric for interconnection, which can enable festival attendees to have direct contact with festival organizers.

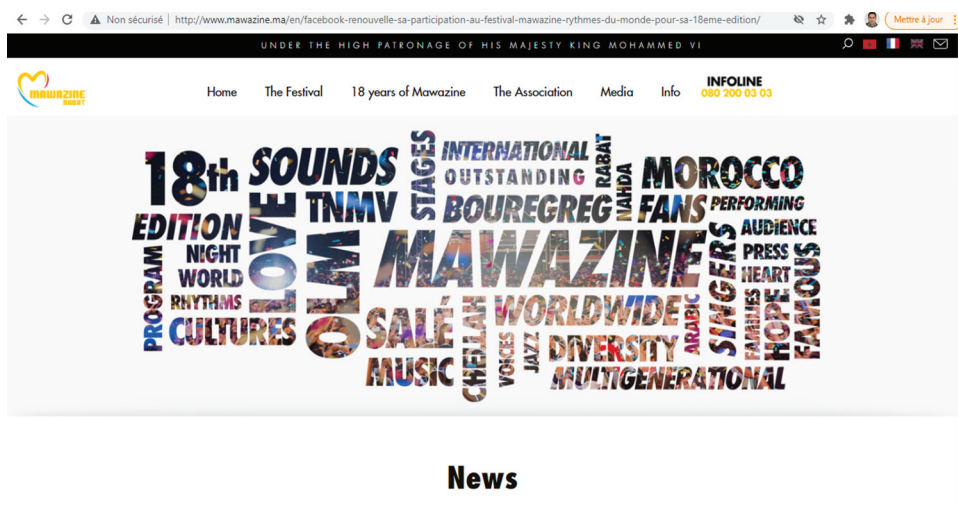


Figure 12. MFRW official website home page.

Source: <http://www.mawazine.ma/en/accueil/>

Apart from the affiliated Facebook website pages of MFRW, where audiences can interact only by writing (posting messages), there are no click-buttons or blog post sections where festival fans can upload and share photos/videos of their festival experience or that of their friends or relatives, which can help create and strengthen emotional bonds and customer loyalty. As Sandywell (2004, as cited in S. Hudson *et al.* 2014) argued, fostering strong brand connection through “Lovemarks” can deepen emotional attachment and reinforce loyalty and create advocacy between the product/brand (the festival in this case) and its consumers (festival community lovers). In the virtual world, there is no direct “human contact,” and the task of fostering the emotional bond and *communitas*, “the sense of belonging and sharing that comes from social events, and should be a hallmark of festivals and other cultural celebrations,” becomes daunting (Reese, 2007, p. 385). In addition, the COVID-19 pandemic has rendered the situation more complex since most festivals were canceled or postponed. The pandemic has reshaped digital culture and inevitably called on experts to envisage new methods in marketing arts festivals post-COVID-19. In her short article “Festivals Post Covid-19” Karen Davies (2020) argued that the potential future of arts festivals (the festivals industry) under the effects of COVID-19 is at risk if festival organizers do not innovate or develop high-quality online services. Her premise is that “with a decrease in air travel, social distancing and more focus on local and virtual communities, there is potential for a growth in the number and importance of smaller, more affordable community events, as well as virtual or online festivals” (Davies, 2020, p. 4). We all witnessed the lockdown and went through the experience of being cut off from basic social services, let alone going to arts festivals. Social media tools have been a good companion, but in terms of digital festival engagement, it has widely been noticed how low-level the technology is in Morocco compared to other international festivals such as Bonnaroo, Tomorrowland, Cannes, Berlinale, to name a few. The shift from actual to virtual was characterized as an emergency in many domains, and going back to normality pushed many festivals to move to digital platforms. The lesson learned is that the culture of digitality struck hard during the pandemic crisis. Regarding the electronic

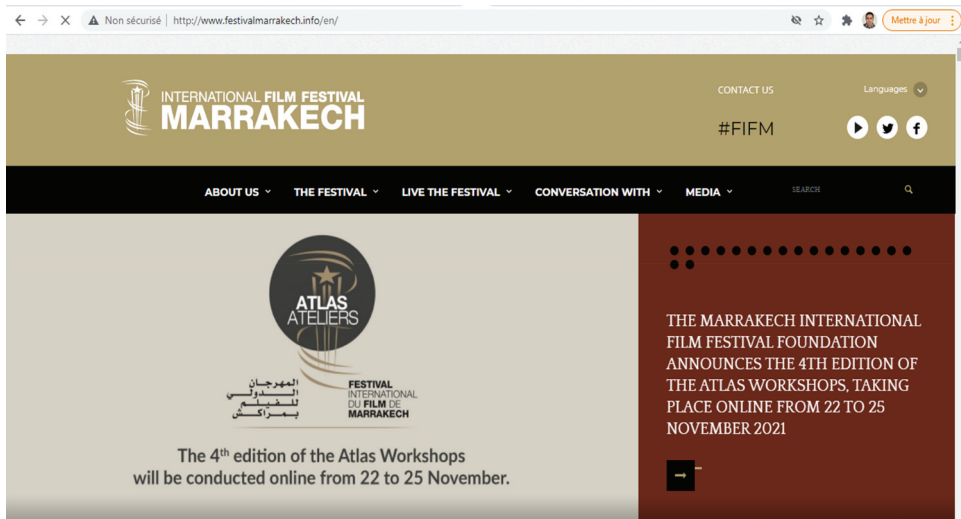


Figure 13. MIFF official website home page.

Source: <http://www.festivalmarrakech.info/en/>

festival in the Moroccan context, it can be argued that it was effective even prior to the COVID-19 pandemic. This does not apply to music festivals per se, but also to film festivals. If we consider the case of the MIFF home page (see Figure 13), we can notice how the platform in its turn does not enhance user engagement and achieve the level of “lovemarks.” There are five sections and some subsections as follows: 1) About US (Festival Presentation – History – Festival Team – The Foundation); 2) The Festival (The President’s Message – Tributes – The Competition – Special Screenings – The 11th Continent – Moroccan Panorama – Cinema for Young Audiences – Cinema and Audiodescription); 3) Live the Festival (Attend the Festival – Program of the Festival); 4) Conversation with (Presentation – Speakers Sheets); 5) Media (Press Releases – Photo and Video Gallery – Screen Magazine). Although the site harbors some social sharing buttons such as YouTube, Twitter and Facebook, there is no direct interactive communication that can connect users to other festival attendees and festival organizers. The same remark can be made for other website festivals, namely the Fes Festival of World Sacred Music (<https://fesfestival.com/2020/contact-us/>), the Gnaoua Festival (<https://www.festival-gnaoua.net/fr/accueil#>), or the Marrakech Festival of Humor known as Marrakech du Rire (<http://www.marrakechdurire.com/index>).

It is high time that festival stakeholders in Morocco find ways of enhancing digital festival engagement that “stimulates emotional engagement” (Ramisetti, 2015) between festival consumers and brands on the one hand, and providing event planners with the most important information in the marketing and commercialization of arts festivals on the other. In view of this context, there is a plethora of applications that can help marketers take high-tech leaps in increasing website traffic on both websites (MFRW and MIFF), while improving user interaction and offering a better user experience. To bring our discussion to more practical steps, Ramisetti (2015) suggests 10 ways to do so. First, the website content has to be catchy and more engaging in terms of blog posts, videos, and case studies. Second, using live chat allows website visitors to get quick answers to queries. This enhances website visitors’ experience and turns them

into customers, which leads to acquiring new loyal festival fans. Third, using CTAs (call to actions) increases digital engagement while achieving business goals by means of email subscriptions, sales, sign-ups, exploring the site further, filling out a contact form, browsing a portfolio, etc. Fourth, visitors get disturbed by the auto-play on videos. By allowing them to decide when to play the video, the user's web browsing experience will not be disrupted, and the interaction will increase while bounce rates decrease. Fifth, the website should include a blog comment section where visitors voice their opinions and provide feedback and gratitude through comments. Sixth, to improve user interaction and offer better user experience and service, marketers can use website surveys by collecting feedback from website visitors, which helps later on in understanding customers' needs. Seventh, pop-ups can increase user interaction or acquire new customers by engaging them to actively react to the services offered, like an e-book download pop-up, webinar registration, exit pop-ups that can be geared toward an offer, a free demo, or a blog subscription. Eighth, arts festival websites should be easy to navigate and browse and free from confusion and misdirection. Ninth, strengthening and keeping a long-lasting relationship with website visitors can be achieved through a subscription option. For instance, website visitors can opt into a blog subscription or email newsletter. Last but not least, customers can be engaged in promoting the website by including [social sharing tools](#)/buttons. This increases word of mouth as visitors interact with the social sharing widgets and share the content they just read to their network.

Given that, enhancing digital festival engagement through developing website communication interaction tools is necessary, but not sufficient. We are left with the belief that marketers need to focus on the micro level. We seek to reflect on the scarcity of smartphone apps that have a potential role in altering user experience of arts festivals in the Moroccan context. Thus, more attention should be directed to this sense of connectivity and personalized networks (Oklobdžija, 2015).

Conclusion

In this study, we attempted to identify and analyze the role and importance of media frame dynamics in promoting Moroccan music and film festivals. In order to conduct the study, two case studies were selected owing to their significance and representation at the national and international levels. The analysis centered on four media forms: social media, online newspapers, festival official websites, and cartoons. The results of the study revealed that "media frames" powerfully impact people and the culture of festivalization in Morocco. The results have also shown that being active on the largest media scale can not only help sustain the festival landmark, it can also undermine it. In fact, media frames "can be said to structure our awareness of time, shape our attention and emotions, and provide us with the means for forming and expressing thought itself" (Morocco & Ruchti, 2011). The efficacy of framing can influence and change the individual and group attitudes about the status quo as well as enhance digital festival engagement. While media framing is employed to favor one side over another (Mollen & Wilson, 2010), this framing helps establish a lens for viewing and understanding the relationship between audience(s) and media representations of Moroccan arts and culture.

This article has also provided an illuminating view that the key to success lies in appropriate marketing strategies and in the ways in which the media communicate arts

festivals locally and globally. In an attempt to provide the event planners with the most important information in the marketing and commercialization of arts festivals, the article has suggested some practical steps. However, in order to better understand the dynamics and mechanics of media, the study needs to feed into a large-scale, multiple case study, with cases comprising other cultural festival genres, not only music or film. Therefore, further research is needed to better understand the polysystemic nature of contemporary urban festivals.

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